

Lesson 23

ROGERS PERSON CENTERED APPROACH

Personality Disorganization and Psychopathology

Thus, personality disorganization and psychopathology occur when the self is unable to defend against threatening experiences. Persons undergoing such disorganization are commonly tagged "psychotic." They manifest behaviors which are to an objective observer strange, irrational, or "crazy." Rogers posits that psychotic behavior is often corresponding with the denied aspects of experience, rather than with the self-concept.

For example, a person who has kept his sexual impulses under rigid control, denying that they were a part of his self-image, may make obvious sexual moves toward those whom he encounters.

Rogers' person-centered therapy attempts to reestablish a more harmonious relationship between the self-concept and the total organism and to facilitate a greater degree of congruence between the self-concept and the phenomenal field of experience.

Evolution of Rogerian-- Therapy : From Techniques to Relationships

With the publication in 1951 of his book *Client-Centered Therapy*, Rogers' approach progressed further and came to be known primarily by this label, as it still is today in some circles. While still retaining his nondirective techniques, Rogers at this time was emphasizing the importance of the clients' perceptions, of therapeutically entering the clients' world of subjective experience and focusing upon the clients' perceptions of themselves, their lives, and their problems. Hence, the term "client-centered". Since that time, however, Rogers' approach has evolved to still another level. He has become more concerned with the issue of precisely what conditions must be met before the client can begin to resolve his or her problems. As stated earlier, he discovered that the relationship between therapist and client is the most important aspect underlying personality change; consequently, he funneled all his efforts on this in the late 1950s (Rogers, 1957b, 1958, 1959) and continues to do so today. again, it should be stressed that Rogers' changes in thinking in this regard represent a progressive evolution to a more comprehensive and meaningful level rather than an abandonment of old, outmoded concepts. At present, the "label" which best captures the essence of the newer developments is "person-centered therapy" (Rogers, 1977). This newer term more accurately reflects the evolution of Rogers' thought-from techniques to relationships.

Rogers ideas related to personality came from his clinical practice just like that of Freud's and Kelly's.

So for Rogers therapy has always been very important to him and his personality theory developed as he tried to understand the principles that were operating during the therapeutic process and secondly as tried to be an effective therapist and counselor.

Rogers' description of the therapeutic process has changed throughout his clinical practice.

First, he referred to it as the nondirective approach which focused on clients' ability to solve their own problems if they were given the proper atmosphere for doing so.

The next, label that he gave to therapy was Client Centered Therapy. Now instead of providing an atmosphere where client can solve his problems. Now, therapy was a joint venture where the client and the therapist were both involved.

In this stage the therapist actively tried to understand the client's phenomenological field or the internal frame of reference of the client. It was labeled as the experiential phase. currently the Rogers thinking has labeled as the person centered approach, the emphasis is on the total person rather than looking at person as merely as a student or as client.

Conditions that Rogers feels are necessary for therapy:

1. The client and the therapist are in a psychological contact.
2. The client is in state of incongruence so he is anxious.
3. The therapist must show empathetic understanding of the client using client's frame of reference.

4. The therapist must give unconditional positive regard to the client.
5. The client must perceive that the therapist is giving him unconditional positive regard.

If therapy moves in right direction then following changes in the client can be observed.

- 1- Clients will express their feelings related to life with freedom.
- 2- Clients become accurate in description of their experiences.
- 3- Clients detect the incongruity of their concept of self and experiences.
- 4- Unconditional positive regard will allow them to experience incongruity without distorting or denying them.
- 5- Clients will be aware of the feeling which have been denied or distorted in past.
- 6- Clients concepts of self become reorganized and are able to include experiences previously denied.
- 7- Clients are less threatened by experiences which were they are less defensive.
- 8- Clients experience themselves more and more.
- 9- Therapy is successful when clients do not take into account the conditions of worth.
- 10- Clients perceive therapist's unconditional positive regard

Skinner and Rogers Debate

On September 4th 1955, the members of American Psychological Association saw at their annual meeting in Chicago, a debate between Rogers and Skinner.

Rogers representing the subjective approach and belief that humans are innately good, free to choose their destiny in life.

Skinner representing the objective approach and behavior could be explained in terms of stimulus and response.

Both men agreed that behavioral science was growing as field which was a good sign. Skinner emphasized on control of behavior from outside whereas Rogers was of the opinion that such an environment should be created where humans feel free to self-actualize.

Psychotherapy and Gardening

So Rogers' person-centered therapy (supported by empirical research) reflects his image of human nature in general and the role of the therapist in particular. Upon reflection, one is tempted to draw an analogy between person-centered therapy and gardening. When one recalls Rogers' background in agriculture, the analogy becomes even more compelling. Concluding his acceptance speech for the 1973 APA

Distinguished Professional Contribution Award, Rogers drew the analogy for us:

And then I garden. Those mornings when I cannot find time to inspect my flowers, water the young shoots

I am propagating, pull a few weeds, spray some destructive insects, and pour just the proper fertilizer on some budding plants, I feel cheated. My garden supplies the same intriguing question I have been trying to meet all my professional life: What are the effective conditions for growth? But in my garden, though the frustrations are just as immediate, the results, whether success or failure, are more quickly obvious. And when, through patient, intelligent, and understanding care I have provided the conditions that result in the production of a rare or glorious bloom, I feel the same kind of satisfaction that I have felt in the facilitation of growth in a person or in a group of persons.

Student Centered Teaching

Rogers feels that education system is in a poor shape and he criticized the American education system harshly.

It treats the student as an object and the teacher as an authority figure. All information is given to the student in a highly structured environment. All students are eager to learn and they can learn and will learn when they are placed in a non-threatening environment which is characterized by unconditional positive regard. Learning will become faster and will be retained better if the material to be learned has personal relevance and significance for the student.

Teacher is a facilitator of education who creates an atmosphere conducive to learning.

Rogers is of the view that education system is based on faulty assumptions about the learner:

- who must be given huge information,
- without any active participation on part of the learner

Lesson 24

KELLY'S COGNITIVE THEORY OF PERSONALITY THEORY

George Kelly: A Cognitive Theory of Personality

Kelly's theory is phenomenological it focuses on the internal frame of reference of the individual. It is cognitive because it studies mental events. It is existential because it emphasized the future and individual's freedom to choose, and humanistic since it focuses on creative powers and optimistic about people's ability to solve their problems.

For Kelly an individual's behavior and thoughts are guided by a set of personal constructs that are used in predicting future events.

A person's processes (behavior and thinking) are channelized by ways that he anticipates reality.

1-The Psychology of Personal Construct

It is a fundamental fact of life that human beings are thinking animals. Indeed, man's intellectual processes are so self-evident that all personality theories in some way acknowledge their effects on behavior. George Kelly, a practicing clinical psychologist, was the first personologist to emphasize the cognitive or knowing aspects of human existence as the dominant feature of personality. According to his theoretical system, the Psychology of Personal Constructs, a person is basically a scientist, striving to understand, interpret, anticipate, and control the personal world of experience for the purpose of dealing effectively with it.

Kelly admonished his fellow psychologists not to proceed as if their subjects were passive "reactors" to external stimuli. He reminded them that their subjects also behave like scientists, inferring on the basis of the past and hypothesizing about the future. His own thinking, highly original and different from the dominant forms of psychological thought prevalent in America in his day, has greatly contributed to recent major innovations in cognitive personality theory.

3- Cornerstones of Cognitive Theory

The central theme of this volume is that any personality theory necessarily involves certain philosophical assumptions about human nature. That is, the way a personologist chooses to view his or her subject matter, the human organism, will largely determine his or her model of the person. Unlike most personologists,

George Kelly explicitly acknowledged that all conceptions of human nature, including his own, are

founded on basic assumptions. Kelly developed his personal constructs theory on the basis of a single

philosophical assumption-constructive constructivism.

i-Constructive Alternativism

Kelly's major premise was that all humans act like scientists in that way they attempt to reduce uncertainty by developing theories (construct system) which allow them to anticipate future events accurately. A construct resembles a theory in that it encompasses a particular domain of events.

Individuals interpret, explain, or predict, the events in their lives by utilizing his constructs. A construct is a category of thought that describes how events are similar to each other and yet different from other events. All individuals are free to choose, create whatever constructs they choose in their attempts to give meaning to their experiences. This freedom to choose constructs is called constructive alternativism. So we are free to choose constructs but once chosen or selected we are bound to them.

Now that people of all ages are exploring alternative life-styles and ways of understanding things, George

Kelly's vintage-1955 theory appears to have been curiously ahead of its time. Kelly's underlying philosophy, constructive alternativism, furnishes a dazzling array of options for people seeking alternatives

to the commonplace. In fact, the philosophy practically demands that people do so.

As a doctrine, constructive alternativism asserts that all present interpretations of the universe are subject to revision or replacement. Nothing is sacred. There are no politics, religions, economic principles, social mores, or even college administrative policies that are absolutely and unalterably "right." All would be changed if people simply saw things differently. Kelly argues that there is no such thing as an interpretation free, view of the world. A person's perception of reality is always subject to interpretation.

It is these "transparent patterns or templates" which Kelly designated personal constructs. Stated otherwise, a construct is a category of thought by which the individual construes, or interprets, his or her personal world of experience. **It represents a consistent way for the person to make sense of some aspect of reality in terms of similarities and contrasts.** Examples of personal constructs include "excitable versus calm," "refined versus vulgar," "intelligent versus stupid," "good versus bad," "religious versus nonreligious," and "friendly versus hostile." These constructs are ones which many people use to construe events in their daily lives.

ii- People as Scientists

Kelly's major premise was that all humans act like scientists in that way they attempt to reduce uncertainty by developing theories (construct system) which allow them to anticipate future events accurately. Individuals interpret, explain, or predict, the events in their lives by utilizing his constructs.

Kelly's theory is a contemporary cognitive approach to the study of personality, one which emphasizes the manner in which individuals perceive and interpret people and things in their environments. Construct theory thus focuses on the processes that enable people to understand the psychological terrain of their lives. From this cognitive perspective, Kelly proposed a model of personality based on the analogy of a person as a scientist. Specifically, he theorized that, like the scientist who studies the human subject also generates working hypotheses about reality with which she or he tries to anticipate and control the events of life. Kelly did not propose that every person is literally a scientist who attends to some limited aspect of the world and employs sophisticated methods to gather and assess data. That analogy would have been foreign to his outlook. But he did suggest that all persons are scientists in that they formulate hypotheses and follow the same psychological processes to validate or invalidate them as those involved in a scientific enterprise (Kelly, 1955). Thus, the basic premise underlying personal construct theory is that science constitutes a refinement of the aims and procedures by which each of us works out a way of life. The aims of science are to predict, to modify, and to understand events (i.e., the scientist's main goal is to reduce uncertainty). Not only the scientist, every person shares these same aims. **We are all motivated to anticipate the future and make plans based on expected outcomes.**

Types of Constructs

Kelly also suggested that personal constructs can be classified according "to the nature of the control they indirectly exercise over their elements. **A construct which freezes ("preempts") its elements for membership exclusively in its own realm Kelly termed a preemptive construct.** This is a type of pigeonhole construct; what has been placed in one pigeonhole is excluded from any other. Preemptive construing may be likened to the "nothing but" kind of thinking characteristic of a rigid person. Ethnic labels illustrate the use of preemptive Constructs. For instance, if a person is identified as a Chicano, then she or he may be thought of by some as nothing but a Chicano. Or, to a lesser degree, once a professor has been labeled as "hard-nosed," some students may disregard the possibility of thinking of him or her in other ways, e.g., as a person with tender feelings for his Or her children, artistic hobbies, or social reform pursuits.

Preemptive thought represents a kind of denial of the right of both others and ourselves to re-

view reinterpret, and see in a fresh light some part of the world around us (Bannister and Fransella, 1971).

Personality: The Personologist's Construct?

Kelley thus believed that personality is an abstraction made by personologists of the psychological processes they observe in others. It is not a separate entity to be discovered by them. Furthermore, Kelly argued that personality is by its very nature embedded in a person's interpersonal relationships. Meshing these two ideas and adding one of our own, a more pointed definition of personality within Kelly's system is possible; **specifically, an individual's personality is nothing more or less than his or her construct system.**

One uses constructs to interpret one's world of experience and to anticipate future events; indeed, personality consists of the constructs one uses to anticipate the future. To understand another person involves knowing something about the constructs he or she employs, the events subsumed under these constructs, and the way in which they are organized in relation to one another to form a construct system.

In short, to know someone's personality is to know how she or he construes personal experience.

Lesson 25

CORE CONCEPTS OF GEORGE KELLY'S COGNITIVE THEORY OF PERSONALITY

Channelizing Processes

Each personality theorist seems to have a language of his or her own when describing human behavior.

Kelly is no exception, as can be seen in his fundamental postulate: **"A person's processes are psychologically channelized by the ways in which he anticipates events"**.

Individuality and Organization

The individuality corollary appears particularly helpful in understanding the uniqueness of personality: "Persons differ from each other in their construction of events" (Kelly, 1955, p. 55). For Kelly, no two people, whether they be identical twins or supposedly similar in outlook, will approach and interpret the same event in exactly the same way. Each person construes reality through his or her unique personal construct "goggles." Hence, differences between people are rooted in their construing events from different perspectives.

Examples

Consider the traditional differences of opinion between political parties on such issues as welfare, military spending, taxation, forced racial integration, and capital punishment. Or reflect on why students may disagree with professors, professors with department chairpersons, department chairpersons with deans, and everybody with college presidents. Or what is popularly called the "generation gap"- the fundamental differences of viewpoint between parents and their offspring- a situation which, in Kelly's theory, might more properly be labeled a "personal construct gap."

10-To Construe or Not to Construe: That Is the Question

Kelly's choice corollary describes how people make these selections: "A person chooses for himself that alternative in a dichotomized construct through which he anticipates the greater possibility for extension and definition of his system" **In other words, one will choose the construct pole that renders the event most understandable-the one that will contribute most to the predictive efficiency of one's construct system.**

C-P-C Cycle

When individuals are confronted with a novel situation, they apply the CPC cycle. In the Circumspection phase of the cycle people think over a number of constructs that they feel may be appropriate to the situation. In the preemption phase they choose those concepts that seem relevant. In the control phase they act on the basis of the constructs chosen in the preemption phase. **circumspection-preemption control (C-P-C) cycle**, which involves a sequential

progression from construction to overt behavior. In the first phase of the C-P-C cycle, the circumspection phase, an individual considers a number of different constructs as they relate to a particular situation-that is, she contemplates the various possibilities facing her in a propositional fashion. This is analogous to looking at all sides of the question. (Recall that a propositional construct is open to new experiences.) The preemption phase follows when the individual reduces the number of alternative constructs (hypotheses) to ones most appropriate to the problem. Here she decides which of the preemptive alternatives to use. Finally, during the control phase of the cycle, she decides on a course of action and its accompanying behavior. The choice is made, in other words, based on an estimate of which alternative construct is most likely to lead to extension and definition of the system.

Change in a Construct System

A construct system enables an individual to anticipate events as accurately as possible. Kelly postulated that a **change in One's construct system occurs most often when one is exposed to novel or unfamiliar events which do not confirm to one's existing system Of constructs.** Accordingly, the experience corollary states: "A person's construct system varies as he successively construes the replication of events" (1955, p. 72).

Social Relationships and Personal Constructs

Kelly asserted in his individuality corollary, people differ as a result of the way they interpret situations, then it follows that they may be similar to others to the extent that they construe experiences in similar ways.

Thus, if two people view the world in the same way (i.e., are similar in their constructions of personal experiences), they are likely to behave in similar ways. The essential point is that people are similar neither because they have experienced similar events nor because they manifest similar behavior: **they are similar because events have approximately the same psychological meaning for them.**

Role Construct Repertory Test: Assessing Personal Constructs

Kelly (1955) developed the Role Construct Repertory Test to identify the important constructs a person uses to construe significant people in his or her life. More importantly, the Rep Test was originally devised as a diagnostic instrument to assist the therapist in understanding a client's construct system and the way the client uses it to structure his or her personal and material environment.

Table 9-1 Role Title List Definitions for the Gridform of the Rep Test

Role titles Definitions

1 Self	Yourself
2 Mother	Your mother or the person who has played the part of a mother in your life
3 Father	Your father or the person who has played the part of a father in your life
4 Brother	Your brother who is nearest your own age, or if you have no brother, a boy near your own age who was most like a brother to you during your early teens
5 Sister	Your sister who is nearest your own age or, if you have no sister, a girl near your own age who was most like a sister to you during your early teens
6 Spouse	Your wife (or husband) or, if you are not married, your closest present friend of the opposite sex
7 Accepted teacher	The teacher who influenced you most when you were in your teens
8 Rejected teacher	The teacher whose point of view you found most objectionable when you were in your teens

9 Boss	An employer, supervisor, or officer under whom you worked during a period of great stress
10 Doctor	Your physician
11 Pitied person	The person whom you would most like to help or for whom you feel most sorry
12 Rejecting person	A person with whom you have been associated, who, for some unexplained reason, appeared to dislike you
13 Happy person	The happiest person whom you know personally
14 Ethical person	The person who appears to meet the highest ethical standards whom you know personally
15 Intelligent person	The most intelligent person whom you know personally

Application:

1. Emotional States
2. Psychological Disorders

Emotional States:

Kelly retained but redefined several traditional psychological concepts of emotion in terms relevant to cognitive theory.

Anxiety:

It is thus, the vague feeling of apprehension and helplessness commonly labeled as anxiety is, for Kelly, a result of being aware that one's available constructs are not applicable to anticipating the events one encounters. Anxiety is created (experienced) only when one realizes that one has no constructs with which to interpret an event. Kelly often facetiously referred to a person in this state as being "caught with his constructs down." Under such circumstances an individual cannot predict, hence cannot fully comprehend what is happening or solve the problem.

Guilt:

The guilty person is aware of having deviated from the important roles (self-images) by which she or he maintains relationships to others. For example, a college student who construes himself as a scholar will feel guilty if he spends too much time at the local club house with his roommates, thus violating the most basic aspect of his role as a scholar, namely studying.

Hostility:

Hostility, a final illustration of emotional states, is defined as the "continued effort to extort validation evidence in favor of a type of social prediction which has already proved itself a failure" (Kelly, 1955, p. 510). Traditionally considered a disposition to behave vindictively toward or inflict harm upon others, hostility in Kelly's system is merely an attempt to hold onto an invalid construct in the face of contradictory (invalidating) evidence.

Psychological Health

Each day clinical psychologists deal with the realities of psychological health and disorder. How are these concepts to be understood within Kelly's theory? Turning first to health, distinct characteristics define the well-functioning person from Kelly's perspective.

First, and perhaps most important, healthy persons are willing to evaluate their constructs and to test the validity of their perceptions of other people. In other words, such people test the predictions derived from their personal constructions of social experiences.

Second, healthy persons are able to discard their constructs and reorient their core role systems whenever they appear to be invalid. In Kelly's terminology, their constructs are permeable,

meaning not only that they can admit when they are wrong, but also that they can update their constructs when their life experiences so dictate.

Fixed-Role Therapy

While many of the therapeutic methods described by Kelly (1955) are compatible with those used in other clinical schemes (including psychoanalysis), there are two distinguishing features of his approach: first, his conception of what the goal of psychotherapy should be and, second, the development and practice of fixed-role therapy.

Kelly discussed the nature and task of therapeutic change in terms of the development of better construct systems. Since disorders involve using constructs in the face of consistent invalidation, psychotherapy is directed toward the psychological reconstruction of the client's construct system so that it is more workable. But more than this, it is an-exciting process of scientific experimentation. The therapy room is a laboratory in which the therapist encourages the client to develop and test new hypotheses, both within and outside the clinical situation. The therapist is highly active-constantly pushing, and stimulating the client to try new constructs on for size. If they fit, the client can use them in the future; if not, other hypotheses are generated and tested. Science is thus the model clients use in reconstructing their lives. Along with this, it is the therapist's task to make validating data (information feedback) available, against which the client can check his own hypotheses. By providing these data in the form of responses to a wide variety of the client's constructions, the clinician actually gives the client an opportunity to validate his constructs, an opportunity which is not normally available to him (Kelly, 1955).

Kelly went beyond this unique interpretation of psychotherapy to develop his own specific brand fixed-role therapy. Fixed-role therapy maintains that, psychologically, human beings are not only what they construe themselves to be but also what they do. In general terms, the therapist sees her role as one of encouraging and helping the client to perceive and construe himself in new ways and to act accordingly, thereby becoming a new, more effective person.

How does fixed-role therapy actually work? It begins by having the client write a sketch of himself in the third person. The sketch has no detailed outline, and the client is only the following instructions. Note how the instructions elicit objectively, minimize threat, and allow the client freedom of expression.

Lesson 26

GORDON ALLPORT: A TRAIT THEORY OF PERSONALITY

Biographical Sketch

Allport was born in 1897 in Indiana, his father was a physician and mother was a school teacher, his elder brother Floyd was a famous psychologist. He went to Harvard but his early grades were Cs and Ds but he finished with straight As. Allport was a social isolate who was skilled with words but poor at sports. One of his classmates, in a show of contempt, once said: "that guy swallowed a dictionary" (1968a, p. 378). Although he finished second highest academically in his high school graduating class of one hundred students, Allport insisted that he was "a good routine student, but definitely uninspired. . . about anything beyond the usual adolescent Concerns" (Allport, 1968a, p. 379). Allport pursued undergraduate study at Harvard University at the urging of his older brother Floyd, who was then a graduate student in psychology at the same university. Although he took several psychology courses at Harvard, Allport majored in economics and philosophy. He also participated in a number of volunteer service projects during his undergraduate years. Allport went to Vienna to meet his brother and he called on Freud, on the day of their meeting, Freud called Allport into his office and sat down, saying nothing, and waited for Allport to speak. The silence grew longer and Allport became uncomfortable under the intense, steady gaze of the world-famous psychoanalyst. Allport received his Ph.D. in psychology in 1922, at the age of 24. His thesis research focused on an examination of the traits of personality and was the first such study done anywhere in the United

States. During the next two years, supported by a Sheldon Traveling Fellowship, Allport studied at the universities of Berlin and Hamburg in Germany and Cambridge in England. Returning from Europe he served as an instructor for two years in Harvard's Department of Social Ethics. In 1926 Allport accepted the position of assistant professor of psychology at Dartmouth College, where he stayed until 1930. In that year, he was invited by Harvard to return at the same rank in the Department of Social Relations.

- Personality : A Personality Interpretation (1937)
- The psychology of rumor (1947) with L. Postman.
- The individual and his religion (1950).
- The nature of prejudice (1954).

Trait:

A trait is a predisposition or way to respond in a manner to various kinds of stimuli.

A trait is what accounts for the more permanent, enduring features of our behavior.

"Generalized action tendencies".

According to Allport, traits are not linked to a small number of specific stimuli or responses; rather, they are relatively generalized and enduring. By uniting responses to numerous stimuli, traits produce fairly broad consistencies in behavior. A trait is what accounts for the more permanent, enduring, trans situational features of our behavior.

In Allport's system, traits themselves may be said to have "traits" or defining characteristics.

Shortly before his death, Allport (1966) published an article entitled "Traits Revisited" in which he summarized all that he had learned in response to the question "What is a trait of personality?" In this article, he proposed that eight basic criteria define a personality trait

The "Traits" of Traits

1 A trait has more than nominal existence: Personality traits are not fictions; they are a very real and vital part of one's existence. Every person possesses inside his or her skin these "generalized action tendencies".

2 A trait is more generalized than a habit: Traits tend to cut across situations and thereby account for the more permanent, enduring, and general features of our behavior. Habits while enduring, refer to more narrow and limited types of tendencies and are thus less generalized in terms of the situations which may arouse them or the responses which they' evoke.

3 A trait is dynamic or at least determinative in behavior: Traits underlie behavior- they cause behavior.

In Allport's system, traits do not lie dormant waiting to be aroused by external stimuli.

4 A trait's existence may be established empirically: If they're real, psychologists ought to be able to prove that they are. While traits as such can never be directly observed (how can you "see" sociability?), Allport believed that they could be verified scientifically.

5 A trait is only relatively independent of other traits: To paraphrase a well-known saying, "No trait is an island." Traits overlap. There is no rigid boundary separating one trait from another. Rather, the personality

is comprised of a network of overlapping traits only *relatively* independent of one another.

6 A trait is not synonymous with moral or social judgment: Despite the fact that many traits (e.g., sincerity, loyalty, greed) are subject to conventional social judgment, they still represent true traits of personality. Ideally, one would first discover traits as they exist in a given individual and then seek neutral, devaluated words to identify them.

7 A trait may be viewed in light of either the personality that contains it or its distribution in the population at large: Take autoeroticism as an illustration. Like any other trait, it has both *unique* and *universal* aspects. When viewed uniquely, autoeroticism could be studied in terms of the role it plays in a given individual's personality.

8 Acts or even habits that are inconsistent with a trait are not proof of the nonexistence of the trait:

As an illustration, consider Eve Smith who is characteristically neat in terms of her personal appearance; with never a hair out of place and her attire impeccable, she indubitably possesses the trait of neatness. But one would never know this by examining her desk, room, or car. Her personal belongings in each case are carelessly arranged, cluttered, and downright sloppy. Why the apparent contradiction?

No two people are completely alike. Thus, no two people react identically to the same psychological situation or stimulus. Every personality theory, in one way or another must deal with the issue of individual differences. Gordon Allport is a personologist who regards the explanation of an individual's uniqueness as the paramount goal of psychology. Allport's emphasis on the uniqueness of the person is, however, only one of the features of his position. In addition, there is a strong focus on the ways in which internal cognitive and motivational processes influence and cause behavior. Allport's theory represents a blend of humanistic and personalistic approaches to the study of human behavior. It is humanistic in its attempts to recognize all aspects of the human being, including the potential for growth, transcendence, and self-realization. It is personalistic in that its objective is to understand and predict the development of the real individual person (Allport, 1968b). Further, as a theoretician, Allport may be broadly described as an eclectic because he incorporates insights from philosophy, religion, literature, and sociology, blending such ideas into an understanding of the uniqueness and complexity of personality. In fact, Allport's belief that each person's behavior derives from a particular configuration of personal *traits* is the trademark of his orientation to personology.

Personality as a "Something"?

In his first book, *Personality: A Psychological Interpretation*. Allport devoted an entire chapter to a review of the many different notions of personality offered by theologians, philosophers, poets, sociologists, and psychologists, and concluded that an adequate synthesis of existing definitions might be expressed in the phrase "what a man really is" ? (1937, p. 48). What this definition possesses in the way of comprehensiveness it certainly lacks in precision. Recognizing this, Allport went a step further and asserted that "personality is something and does something. . . . It is what lies behind specific acts and within the individual" (1937, p. 48). The notion of personality as merely a hypothetical entity, then, Allport argued that it definitely is an existing "something" within the person. At least in Allport's system, personality is alive, well, and functioning.

"Personality is the (dynamic)energetic organization within the individual of psychophysical systems that determine his unique adjustments to his environment "

In 1961, Allport changed the phrase of the definition from "unique adjustments to his environment" to

"Characteristic Behavior and Thought". Let us examine the key components

- Dynamic Organization- humans always changing, becoming.
- Psychophysical Systems- it entails body and mind fused together
- Determine-personality is something and does something.
- Characteristic Behavior and Thought"- to learn about an individual is to study about him.

In arriving at his conceptual definition, Allport noted that the terms *character* and *temperament* have often been used as synonyms for personality. This seems particularly true when considering the layman's use of these terms. Allport explains how each may be readily distinguished from the concept of personality.

The word "character" traditionally connotes a moral standard or value system against which the individual's

actions are evaluated. For example, whenever another person is considered of "good character," a personal

judgment as to the social and or ethical desirability of his or her personal qualities is really the topic.

Character thus is actually an ethical concept. Or, as Allport (1961) put it, character is personality *evaluation*. Character, then, should not be considered as some special region contained within personality.

Temperament is the mood or emotional component of personality.

- Type – A is a category or class in which a person can be placed say An Aggressive Type of person

What a personality theory should be?

Specifically, Allport (1960) insisted that

1. **A truly adequate theory of human behavior must regard the human personality as contained in the organism.**

Theorists have placed personality outside the person by equating it with social roles or interpersonal relationships. The **role theory**, as proposed by sociologists and anthropologists, explains personality as nothing more than one's membership in a group and the situationally defined roles one is expected to adopt.

According to this approach, any given person, say, A, for example, is known only by the roles he enacts, so A is only a college student, son, consumer, church attendee, part time drug pusher, and so on.

2- **A complete theory of personality regards the organism as well-stocked" not empty.**

Representing the antithesis of Skinner's position, Allport argued that we must assume a "well-stocked" organism, not an empty one, if we are to advance in personality theorizing. Whereas Skinner believes environmental events shape the "empty" organism, Allport believes personality is something that is located within the organism:

3- **An adequate theory must regard motivation as normally affect of present structure and function, not simply as an outgrowth of earlier forces or experience.**

Motivationally speaking, A is not a prisoner of his past. He does not forever drag the chains of his early childhood experiences to rattle through his every adult action. Instead, Allport believed that an adequate personality theory should portray A as he is now, as a 20-year-old college student, and interpret his motivation.

4- **The units of measure employed by an adequate personality theory must be capable of living synthesis.**

In order for a theory to be adequate it must employ units of analysis capable of living synthesis. This requirement stipulates that **personality must somehow be broken down into definable units (segments, aspects, factors) for study**, but that the units themselves must be of such a nature as to permit their reconstruction, capturing that holistic quality of **"dynamic organization"** which is at the heart of Allport's definition of personality. For example, to account for the personality of Humpty Dumpty, it would indeed be necessary for a theory first to break him into pieces.

5- **A theory must allow adequately for but not rely exclusively upon the phenomenon of self-consciousness.**

To portray A accurately, an adequate personality theory must recognize that he is consciously aware of himself. In fact, this self-consciousness is the most concrete evidence Adam has of his personal identity.

Lesson 27

GORDON ALLPORT: A TRAIT THEORY OF PERSONALITY

Types of Traits: Pervasiveness within a Personality

1- Cardinal Traits:

If a trait is extremely pervasive, so pervasive that almost all a person's activities can be traced to its influence, it is a *cardinal trait* in Allport's system. This highly generalized disposition cannot remain hidden unless, of course, it happens to be something like exclusiveness, in which case its possessor might become a hermit, whose traits were known to no one. In other instances, however, this kind of master sentiment or ruling passion makes its possessor famous or infamous. Allport insisted that very few people possess a cardinal trait.

The meaning of a cardinal trait may be readily grasped by considering the many trait adjectives derived from historical and fictional characters, e.g., when someone is referred to as being a chauvinist, Machiavellian, Don Juan, Scrooge, or Joan of Arc. Or consider that Albert Schweitzer was said to have had one cardinal disposition in his life-"reverence for every living organism." Similarly, Leo Tolstoy was said to have been endowed with a burning passion for the "oversimplification of life."

2 Central Traits:

Less pervasive but still quite generalized characteristics of the individual are what Allport termed *central traits*- the so-called building blocks of personality. These traits might best be regarded as those attributes which would be stressed in writing a carefully defined letter of recommendation, e.g., outgoing, sentimental, attentive, sociable, or vivacious. Specifically, central traits are those tendencies that a person often expresses that people around him can readily discern. In a rather hypothetical manner, Allport asked:

"How many central traits does the average individual possess?" He approached this question by asking ninety-three students "to think of some one individual of your own sex whom you know well" and "to describe him or her by writing words, phrases, or sentences that express fairly well what seem to you to be the essential characteristics of this person" (1961, p.366).

3- Secondary Traits:

Dispositions which are less conspicuous, less generalized, less consistent, and thus less relevant to the definition of a personality are called *secondary traits*. Food preferences, specific attitudes, and other situationally determined characteristics of the person would be classified under this rubric. Consider, for instance, a person whose central traits are dominance and assertiveness, which he manifests in practically every interpersonal encounter. This person might also have as a secondary trait submissiveness, which he displays only in relation to police who dutifully stop him for speeding, running red lights, and ignoring stop signs ("Yes, officer," "No, officer," "You're right officer, etc.).

Common versus Individual Traits

Allport also distinguished between common and individual traits. The former, *common traits* (also called *dimensional or nomothetic traits*) includes any generalized disposition to which most people within a given culture can be reasonably compared. We might say, for example, that some people are more assertive than others or that some people are more polite than others. The logic for assuming the existence of common traits is that members of a given culture are subject to similar evolutionary and social influences; therefore, develop roughly comparable modes of adjustment. Examples include proficiency in the use of language, political and/or social attitudes, value orientations, anxiety, and conformity. The majority of people within our culture could be measurably compared with one another on these common dimensions.

The proprium: a real self?

No personologist, least of all Allport, believes that personality is a mere bundle of unrelated traits.

Personality embodies a unity, consistency, and integration of traits. It is therefore reasonable to suppose that there is an overall principle that unifies traits, attitudes, values, motives, and experiences. For Allport, the problem of identifying and describing the nature of personality integration requires an all inclusive construct such as the self, ego, or style of life. Formerly, in less scientific days, people called it a soul. But all these terms had accumulated too many ambiguous connotations and semantic ambiguities for Allport's taste. So he introduced a new

term-the *proprium*. Allport's humanistic orientation to personality is nowhere more clearly revealed than in his concept of *proprium*, defined as "the self-as-known- that which is experienced as warm and central, as of importance"

(1968a, p. 4) It's the "me" part of subjective experience. It's selfhood.

- **1- The Sense of Bodily Self:** A sense of one's own body, including bodily sensations, attests to one's existence and therefore remains a lifelong anchor for self-awareness.

- **2- The Sense of Self-Identity:** The second aspect of the *proprium* to unfold self-identity, is most evident when, through language, the child recognizes himself or herself as a distinct and constant point of reference. Unquestionably, the most important anchorage for one's self-identity is one's own name, e.g., "That's Tommy (me) in the mirror." Clothing, toys, and other precious possessions also strengthen this sense of identity, but identity is not firmly established all at once. For instance, a 2-year-old may be unaware that he is cold, feels tired, or needs to eliminate. Fantasy and reality are often blurred and the former often dominates play life.

- **3- The Sense of Self-Esteem or Pride:** Essentially, self-esteem is an individual's evaluation of herself or himself. The urge to want to do everything for oneself and take all the credit is one of the most conspicuous aspects of a 2-year-old's behavior. Parents frequently consider this the age of negativism, since the child resists almost any adult proposal as a threat to integrity and autonomy.

Later, by the age of 4 or 5, self-esteem acquires a competitive flavor, reflected by the child's delighted "I beat you!" when she or he wins a game.

- **4- The Sense of Self-Extension:** From approximately 4 to 6 years of age, the *proprium* is elaborated through self-extension, that is, the sense that although other people and things are not inside my physical body, they are still very much a part of me-they are "mine." With it comes jealous possessiveness, e.g., "This is my ball," "I own the doll house." My mommy, my sister, my dog, my house are regarded as warm parts of oneself and are to be guarded against loss, especially against takeover by another child. Later, we extend our loyalties to our families, our churches, and our nation; we can also become preoccupied with material possessions in this respect.

- **5- The Self-Image:** How others view "me" is another aspect of selfhood that emerges during childhood. Now is the time when the child realizes that parents expect him or her to be "good" while at times he or she is "naughty." As yet, however, the child has no clearly developed conscience, nor any image of how she or he would like to be as an adult. Allport writes: "In childhood the capacity to think of oneself as one is, as one wants to be, and as one ought to be is merely germinal" (1961, p. 123).

- **6- The Sense of Self as a Rational Coper:** Between 6 and 12 years of age, the child begins to fully realize that he or she has the rational capacity to find solutions to life's problems and thereby cope effectively with reality demands. Reflective and formal thought appear, and the child begins to think about thinking. But the child does not yet trust himself or herself to be an independent moral agent, but rather dogmatically believes that his or her family, religion, and peer group are *right*; this stage of propiarte development reflects intense moral and social conformity.

- **7- Propriate Striving:** Allport believed that the core problem for the adolescent is the selection of an occupation or other life goal. The adolescent knows that the future must follow a plan and, in this sense, her or his selfhood assumes a dimension entirely lacking in childhood (Allport, 1961).

Pursuing long range goals, having a sense of directedness and intentionality in striving for defined objectives, imparting to life a sense of purpose- this is the essence of Propriate striving, although it may be quite elementary in the adolescent.

7- Functional Autonomy: The Past is Past

Basic to Allport's trait theory is the underlying idea that personality is a dynamic (motivated) growing system. In fact, Allport held that "any theory of personality pivots upon its analysis of the nature of motivation (1961, p. 196).

Allport proposed that an adequate theory of human motivation must meet four requirements. First, it must recognize the **contemporaneity of motives**. While knowledge about a person's past helps to reveal the present course of her or his life, Allport believed that such historical facts are useless unless they can be shown to be dynamically active in the present. In his words, "Past motives explain nothing unless they are also present motives" (1961, p. 220). Thus, it is the current state of the individual- not what happened during toilet training or weaning- that is central.

Second, it must be a **pluralistic theory, allowing for motives of many types**. Many theorists, hoping to unravel the complex nature of human motivation, have suggested that all motives are reducible to one type, e.g., a few basic drives, the unconscious, or self-actualization. Being a true eclectic, Allport felt that there is some truth in all these formulations of motivation, adding, "Motives are so diverse in type that we find it difficult to discover the common denominator" (1961, p. 221). This, many motivational concepts must be used if we are to understand motivation. Third, such a theory must **ascribe dynamic force to the individual's cognitive processes**, especially to the individual's long-range intentions and plans. For Allport, the most significant question one can ask a person in order to understand his or her personality is "What do you want to be doing five years from now?" or "what are you trying to do with your life?" An adequate theory of motivation must therefore address itself to what sort of future a person is trying to bring about. And fourth, the theory must **allow for the concrete uniqueness of motives**. In contrast to theorists who assume a schedule of motives common to all, Allport insisted that the study of motivation must focus on how motives function in unique ways the individual organism. **In contrast to the "circular-feedback" processes that characterize perseverative autonomy, *proprie functional autonomy* refers to the individual's acquired interests, values, attitudes, and intentions.** Proprie autonomy, essential to the integration of adult personality, significantly contributes to the person's striving for a congruent self-image and an enriching style of life. It is what impels an individual to respond to life's challenges, resulting in the attainment of progressively higher levels of authentic maturity and growth.

Once again, Allport proposed a concept that is a precursor of much of contemporary humanistic thinking about human nature. **For example, *proprie autonomy* clearly suggests that we need not be constantly rewarded (reinforced) to sustain our efforts:**

Application: The Study of Values

Allport stressed that a mature person needs a unifying philosophy of life to make sense of his or her existence. An individual's philosophy is founded upon *values* basic convictions about what is and is not of real importance in life. Believing that a person's efforts to find order and meaning in his or her existence are governed by values, Allport worked hard to identify and measure basic value dimensions. The success of his effort is evident in the **well-known personality test that he helped significantly to develop-the *Study of Values*-which was originally published in 1931** and is currently in its third edition (Allport, Vernon, and Lindzey, 1960). Within the context of trait theory, this instrument illustrates Allport's ability to dissect an enormously complex component of personality (values) into empirically measurable terms.

Following are Spranger's basic value types, as depicted in the *Study of Values manual* (Allport, Vernon, and Lindzey, 1960).

1- The Theoretical:

The theoretical person is primarily concerned with the discovery of *truth*. He or she assumes a "cognitive" attitude in pursuing this objective, seeking only to observe and to reason. In doing

so, the theoretical individual searches for fundamental identities and differences, rejecting any considerations of beauty or utility.

2- The Economic:

The economic individual places highest value upon what is **useful**. He or she is thoroughly "practical" and conforms closely to the stereotype of the successful American businessperson. Rooted originally in the satisfaction of bodily needs (self-preservation), the economic value gradually extends to the everyday affairs of the business world-the production, marketing, and consumption of goods, the elaboration of credit, and the accumulation of tangible wealth. The economic person is interested in making money.

3- The Aesthetic:

The aesthetic person places highest value **on form and harmony**. Judging each single experience from the standpoint of grace, symmetry, or fitness, he or she perceives life as a procession of events, with each individual impression enjoyed for its own sake. Such an individual need not be a creative artist but is aesthetic to the degree that his or her chief interest is in the artistic episodes of life.

4- The Social:

The highest value of the social type is **love of people**. Since the *Study of Values* focuses only upon the altruistic or philanthropic aspects of love (as opposed, for example, to conjugal or familial love), social persons prize others as ends and are themselves kind, sympathetic, and unselfish. Such a person is likely to experience the theoretical, economic, and aesthetic attitudes as cold and inhuman, regarding love as the only suitable form of human relationship. In its purest form, the social attitude is selfless and is closely related to the religious value.

5- The Political:

The dominant interest of the political individual is **power**. Vocational activities of this type of person are not necessarily confined to the realm of politics, since leaders in any field generally place a high value on power. Because competition and struggle are inherent in all life, many philosophers have argued that power is the most universal and fundamental human motive. In fact, some of the early writings of Alfred Adler, as you may recall, reflect this point of view. However, for Spranger there are clear individual differences in the power value. For certain personalities, direct expression of this motive overrides all others in that they yearn for personal power, influence, and renown above all else.

6- The Religious:

Religious individuals place their highest value upon unity. Fundamentally mystical, they seek to understand and experience the world as a unified whole. Spranger describes the religious person as one who is permanently oriented toward the creation of the highest and absolutely satisfying value experience. There are, however, different modes of seeking this level of experience. For instance, some religious persons are "immanent mystics," i.e., individuals who find religious meaning in the affirmation and active participation in life, while others are "transcendental mystics," striving to unite themselves with a higher reality by withdrawing from life, e.g., monks. Regardless of the particular type of expression, the religious person basically seeks unity and higher meaning in the cosmos.

Lesson 28 FACTOR ANALYTIC TRAIT THEORY (Raymond Cattell)

Factor analysis is of course widely used as an everyday empirical tool by contemporary investigators. Other theorists working in the area of personality have also used this technique H. J. Eysenck, J. P. Guilford, Cyril Burt, L. Thurstone, and W. Stephenson. Cattell's theory is by far the most comprehensive and fully developed theory of personality based on factor analysis, and therefore, we need to acquaint ourselves briefly with the method of factor analysis itself.

1- Factor Analysis

Cattell's theory of personality is based on factor analysis. The corner stone of the factor analysis is the concept of correlation. When two things vary together, they are said to be correlated e.g. there is a relationship between height and weight because when one increases, the other will also tend to increase.

The stronger the tendency for two variables to vary together, the stronger is the correlation between them. The strength of the relationship between the two variables is expressed mathematically by a correlation coefficient that can vary in magnitude from +1 to -1.

A score of -1 indicates perfect negative correlation and +1 indicate a strong positive correlation.

Cattell's procedure was to measure a large number of individuals in as many ways as possible e.g. he records the everyday behavior of various individuals, such as how many accidents they have, the number of organizations to which they belong and the number of social contacts they had. He calls the information gathered by such observations L Data, the L for Life Record, Q Data, the Q for Questionnaire information and lastly the T Data, the T for the Test Information.

The next step is to inter-correlate all of the test scores, creating correlation matrix. In this matrix clusters of correlation are searched. Such a search is called cluster analysis. An ability discovered in such a cluster is called a factor and in Cattell's theory, the term factor is equated with the term trait. For Cattell factor analysis is a method used to discover traits which he considers the building blocks of personality.

The procedures in Factor Analysis Technique can be summarized as follows.

Measure a large number of people in a variety of ways. Correlate performance on each measure with performance on every other measure. This creates a correlation matrix.

Determine how many factors (traits) need to be postulated in order to account for the various inter-correlations (Clusters) found in the correlation matrix.

2- Biographical Sketch

Cattell was born in Stanford shire in England in 1905, his childhood was a happy one with a huge number of activities as exploring, swimming and sailing. England entered in World War 1 when Cattell was nine years old and it had a major effect on his life. He saw hundred of wounded soldiers being treated in a nearby house which was converted into a hospital. Cattell was professor of genetic psychology at Clark University in Worcester.

3- The Nature of Personality:

A Structure of Traits

The system of constructs proposed by Cattell is among the most complex of any of the theories.

Traits

The trait is by far the most important of Cattell's concepts. Except perhaps for Gordon Allport, Cattell has considered this concept and its relation to other psychological variables in greater detail than any other current theorist. For him a trait is a "mental structure," an inference that is made from observed behavior to account for regularity or consistency in this behavior.

1. Unique traits, single individual's traits
2. Common traits shared by all people

The kind of Factor analysis used in which many subjects are measured on the many variables and the scores inter correlated is called R-Technique. The kind of Factor analysis that traces the strength of several traits over a period of time for the same individual is called the P Technique.

3. Surface Traits that can be observed easily in day to day life like honesty
4. Source Traits cannot be observed in day to day life we all possess this in different degree like intelligence

Cattell admits that surface traits are likely to appeal to the common-sense observer as more valid and meaningful than source traits because they correspond to the kinds of generalizations that can be made on the basis of simple observation. However, in the long run it is the source traits that prove to have the most utility in accounting for behavior.

5. Constitutional traits genetic traits

6. Environmental traits shaped by culture and environment

Source traits are those that are the underlying causes of overt behavior. He feels that most people have about **sixteen source traits**.

7. ability and temperament, how well a task is performed/ emotional makeup

8. and dynamic motivational makeup toward certain goal

The most important ability trait is intelligence of which Cattell describes two kinds. **Fluid intelligence is general problem-solving ability and is thought to be genetically determined. Crystallized intelligence is the cumulated knowledge of the kind learned in school and is thus gained through experience.**

Cattell distinguishes two categories of dynamic traits: ergs and meta-ergs.

Ergs are roughly equivalent to instincts, biological needs, or primary drives.

Meta-ergs are learned drives, divided into sentiments and attitudes. Sentiments are predispositions to act in certain ways to classes of objects or events. Attitudes are specific responses to specific objects or events. **Since ergs are at the core of one's motivational patterns, sentiments are said to be lesser to ergs, and since attitudes are dependent on sentiments, attitudes are said to be lesser to sentiments.**

Cattell's describes the relationship among ergs, sentiments, and attitudes in what he calls the dynamic lattice.

4- Important Dynamic Traits

The important dynamic traits, in Cattell's system, are of three kinds:

- Attitudes,
- Ergs
- Sentiments—Self

We will now examine these three kinds of dynamic traits, an attitude is a response of an individual to a situation or to a object, Ergs correspond roughly to biologically based drives and sentiments are acquired attitude structures, their interrelationship in the dynamic lattice, and their role in conflict and adjustment will be discussed.

1- Attitudes

An attitude is a response of an individual to a situation or object. Thus the attitude of a young man "I want very much to marry a woman" indicates an intensity of interest ("want very much") in a course of action ("to marry") toward an object ("a woman"). The attitude need not be verbally stated; indeed Cattell would prefer to measure the strength of the young man's interest by a variety of devices, direct and indirect. These might include his rise in blood pressure to a picture of a bride, his ability to remember items from a list of good and bad consequences of marrying, his misinformation concerning the matrimonial prospects of a male in our society, and so forth. Cattell and his co-workers have in fact inter correlated some sixty or **seventy different devices for measuring attitude** strength in a series of studies aimed at developing an efficient test battery for measuring conscious and unconscious components of attitudes (see, for example, Cattell, Radcliffe and Sweeney 1963).

In practice, however, two second-order components of attitude strength are usually measured—one concerned with the relatively conscious and integrated aspects of an attitude (as measured, for instance, by **information tests**), and one concerned with less "integrated or **unconscious** aspects (as measured, for example, by wishful thinking or **forgetting tests**). To obtain a single score for the strength of an attitude, the scores for the two components can simply be added together.

The Self

The self is one of the sentiments, but an important one, since nearly all attitudes tend to reflect the self-sentiment in greater or lesser degree. It in turn is linked to the expression of most or all of the ergs or other sentiments. In any event, the sentiment or system of sentiments focused around the self is considered by Cattell to play a crucial role in the integration of the personality, but inter-relating the expression of the various ergs and sentiments.

5- Major Sources of Data about Personality

In Cattell's view, there are three major sources of data about personality:

- The Life Record, or L- Data;
 - The Self-Rating Questionnaire, Q-Data;
 - The Objective Test or T-Data
1. L-data, may involve actual records of the person's behavior in society, such as **school records, court records** although in practice Cattell has usually substituted ratings by other persons who know the individual in real-life settings.
 2. Self-rating (Q-data) by contrast, involves the **person's own statements** about his or her behavior, and thus can provide a "mental interior" to the external record yielded by L-data.
 3. Objective test (T-data) is based on a third possibility **the creation of special situations in which the person's behavior may be objectively scored**. These situations may be pencil-and-paper tasks, or they may involve apparatus of, various kinds. Cattell and his associates have been extremely fertile in devising and adapting these tests: a compendium (Cattell and Warburton, 1967) lists over 400 of them. Cattell has sought to locate general traits of personality by conducting separate factor analytic studies using all three of the above data sources, on the assumption that if the same source traits emerged from all three, **this would provide strong evidence that the source traits were true functional unities and not mere artifacts of method.**

Lesson 29

FACTOR ANALYTIC TRAIT THEORY (Raymond Cattell)

R = f (P,S)

In this formula **R is person's reaction**, **f is the function**, **P is the person's personality**, **S is the situation**, now how a person behaves is a function of both the person's personality and the given situation. where are the traits ? They are within the person. Now it becomes clear to predict a person's behavior we must know what traits he possesses and how important they are to situation of interest. Cattell calls it the specification equation.

$P_j = s_{jA}A + s_{jT}T + s_{jE}E + s_{jM}M + s_{jR}R + s_{jS}S$

- P_j = Performance in a Situation
- A= Ability Traits
- T = Temperament Traits
- E = Ergic Tensions Present
- M = Meta Ergs (sentiments and attitudes)
- R = temporary body states fatigue, illness. anxiety
- S_j = A weight or loading indicating the importance of each of the above influences in situation j.

This formula simply restates that if you want to know how a person will react to a situation list all his traits and weigh each one of them in terms of their relevance. **For example if a person is in problem solving situation, the ability trait of intelligence will be given great weight or a high factor loading as compared to other traits.**

7- The Development of Personality

Personality development is the result of motivation and learning. Motivation is responsible for many changes in perceptual and behavioral capacities.

Cattell distinguishes at least three kinds of learning that play important roles in personality development.

- 1- Classical-(Respondent)
- 2- Instrumental (Operant)
- 3- Structured (Integration)

The first two are the familiar classical and instrumental (operant) conditioning of the experimental psychologist. Cattell's treatment of these is fairly conventional: classical conditioning is held to be of importance in attaching emotional responses to environmental cues and instrumental conditioning for establishing means to the satisfaction of Ergic goals. Instrumental conditioning plays a substantial role in building up the dynamic framework, which, it will be recalled consists of subsidiation (that is, means-end) relations (attitudes and sentiments serve as the means of achieving ergic goals). A form of instrumental conditioning of special interest in personality learning is what Cattell calls confluence learning, in which a behavior or attitude simultaneously satisfies more than one goal. Thus one attitude comes to be linked to several sentiments, and one sentiment to several ergs, giving the dynamic lattice its characteristic structure.

The third kind of learning is called integration learning. It appears to be essentially a more elaborate form of instrumental learning. In integration learning, the individual learns to maximize total long-term satisfaction by expressing some ergs at any given moment and suppressing, repressing, others. Integration learning is a key aspect of the formation of the self and superego sentiments.

According to Cattell, personality learning is best described as a multidimensional change in response to experience in a multidimensional situation. A way of studying personality learning empirically is by means of a procedure called adjustment path analysis. One begins with two things: first, with information about trait changes occurring in a number of people, possibly in response to a period of ordinary life adjustments; and second, with a theoretical analysis of various possible paths of adjustment (such as regression, sublimation, fantasy, neurotic symptoms) that people may take in response to conflict life situations.

Heredity-Environment Analysis

Cattell has for a number of years been actively interested in assessing the relative weight of genetic and environmental influences on source traits. He has developed a method for this purpose, which he calls Multiple Abstract Variance Analysis, or MAVA (1960). MAVA involves gathering data on the resemblances between twins and siblings reared together in their own homes or adopted into different homes, and then analyzing the data to estimate the proportions of individual variation on each trait that are associated with genetic differences, with environmental differences.

Research Methods

1- A Factor-Analytic Study of a Single Individual

In the personality research area Cattell employs his favorite tool of factor analysis in it, to a study of the dynamic traits of a single individual.

In the preceding section the distinction was drawn between R-technique and P-technique. In the R technique the usual factor-analytic procedure, correlations are calculated over many persons, and the factors obtained are common traits. In P-technique, however, the correlations are calculated over many repeated measurements on a single person, and the factors can represent unique traits of that individual.

2- His most important distinction is between surface traits and source traits. Surface traits are those that are actually measured and are, therefore, expressed in overt behavior of some kind. Source traits are those that are the underlying causes of overt behavior. He feels that most people have about sixteen source traits.

Cattell with Saunders and Stice, constructed his famous Sixteen Personality Factors or 16 PF (1950). This test has been widely used in predicting vocational and academic success and failure.

3- The most important ability trait is intelligence of which Cattell describes two kinds. Fluid intelligence is general problem-solving ability and is thought to be genetically determined. Crystallized intelligence is the cumulated knowledge of the kind learned in school and is thus gained through experience. He developed the Culture Fair Intelligence test which is designed to measure fluid intelligence.

10- Summary

1. Cattell's describes the relationship among ergs, sentiments, and attitudes.
2. The fact that humans almost inevitably take indirect routes to satisfy ergic tensions is referred to as long –circuiting.
3. To explain how personality develops, Cattell postulates three kinds of learning: classical and instrumental conditioning and structured learning. The last is by far the most important kind of learning since it involves a change in one's entire personality. Cattell exemplifies structured learning by showing what happens at a number of choice points following the arousal of ergic tension. A series of such choice points is called dynamic crossroads.
4. He has been praised for his scientific approach to the study of personality and criticized by those who feel certain human attributes are not quantifiable.

11- Evaluation

1- Cattell's theory, like most theories of personality, has received mixed reviews. On the positive side, many feel that too much personality research has been unscientific, and therefore Cattell's effort to quantify personality is most welcome. There is no doubt that Cattell has been a careful researcher in one of psychology's more complex areas. His use of factor analysis has necessitated the clear and unambiguous definition of his concepts.

2- However, as one may expect, there are those who look upon Cattell's attempt to quantify personality as negative rather than positive, saying that scientific method is not appropriate to the study of human attributes.

Allport was disturbed by Cattell's emphasis on groups rather than on individuals. Allport felt that Cattell's method yielded average traits which no individual actually possessed.

An entire population (the larger the better) is put into the grinder, and the mixing is so expert that what comes through is a link of factors in which every individual has lost his identity. His dispositions are mixed with everyone else's dispositions. The factors thus obtained represent only average tendencies. Whether a factor is really an organic disposition in any one individual life is not demonstrated. All one can say for certain is that a factor is an empirically derived component of the average personality, and that the average personality is a complete abstraction.

Lesson 30

HENRY MURRAY'S PERSONOLOGY

The term Personology was used by Murray which refers to understanding of an individual in its full complexity.

Definition of Personality

He gave a number of definitions of personality at different times but in all the definitions he seems to give adequate weight to history of the person, to abstract nature of personality and the physiological processes underlying the psychological.

Proceedings and Serials

Proceedings refer to subject –object or subject – subject interactions of sufficient duration to include the significant elements of any given behavioral sequence.

The serial refer to a single unit or design of behavior taking place over a longer period of time such as marriage, friendship or a career in business.

Serial Programs and Schedules

These are orderly arrangements of sub-goals that are stretch into future say for months or years

Example

An individual say Ambreen wants to become a doctor (its her goal) now her goal requires years of study and special training so she develops a set of sub-goals each of which will play a part in bringing her closer to getting a medical degree.

The Schedules refer to devices for reducing conflict among competing needs and if one is efficient in

constructing Schedules one can reduce the number and intensity of one's conflicts.

Ability and Achievement

These are of central importance for the individual. In almost all of his research he has appraised subjects in terms of **ability, achievements and leadership**.

Murray focuses on **unconscious forces and childhood events** as determinants of behavior. This acceptance formed the base on which he erected his own system of personality.

In a later revision of his theory, Murray (1959) stressed the more positive establishments of the personality. A person needs to be **creative and imaginative**, to compose and construct if he or she is to remain psychologically healthy. Creative imagination may be the strongest feature of a personality and the one that is often given the least opportunity to express itself.

5- The Dynamics of Personality

It is in the representation of human motivation, seeking, desiring, wishing, and willing that Murray's contributions to psychological theory have been most distinguishing. One might fairly say that his position is primarily a motivational psychology. This focusing upon the motivational process is perfectly congruent with Murray's conviction that the study of a person's directional tendencies holds the key to understanding human behavior: "the most important thing to discover about an individual is the superordinate directionality (or directionalities) of his activities, whether mental, verbal, or physical" (Murray 1951 b, p. 276).

In considering Murray's theory of motivation a discussion of such related concepts as press, tension reduction, thema, need integrate unity-thema.

1-Need

Theories of personality based on needs and motives suggest that our **personalities** are a reflection of behaviors controlled by needs. While some needs are temporary and changing, other needs are more deeply seated in our nature. According to Murray, these psychogenic needs function mostly on the unconscious level but play a major role in our personality. Murray identified needs as one of two types:

Types of Needs

Different Types of Needs

1-Primary and Secondary

First of all, there is the distinction between primary and secondary needs. The primary, or **viscerogenic** needs are linked to characteristic organic events and typically refer to physical satisfactions. Illustrative of these are the needs for air, water, food, sex, lactation, urination, and defecation. The secondary, or **psychogenic**, needs are presumably derived from the primary needs and are characterized by a lack of focal connection with any specific organic processes or physical satisfactions. Illustrative of these are the needs for acquisition, construction, achievement, recognition, exhibition, dominance, autonomy, and deference.

2-Overt needs and Covert Needs

Second, we have the distinction between overt needs and covert needs, that is, manifest needs and latent needs. Here Murray was differentiating between those needs that are permitted more or less direct and immediate expression and those that are generally restrained, inhibited, or repressed. **One might say that overt needs typically express themselves in motor behavior while covert needs usually belong to the world of fantasy or dreams.** The existence of covert needs is in large part the outcome of the development of internalized, structures (superego) that define proper or acceptable conduct. Certain needs cannot be given free expression without violating

the conventions or standards that have been taken over from society by means of the parents, and these needs often operate at a covert level.

3-Focal needs and Diffuse needs

Third, there are focal needs and diffuse needs. Some needs are closely linked to limited classes of environmental objects whereas others are so generalized as to be applicable in almost any environmental setting. Murray pointed out that unless there is some unusual fixation a need is always subject to change in the objects toward which it is directed and the manner in which these are approached. That is, the sphere of environmental events to which the need is relevant may be broadened or narrowed, and the instrumental acts linked to the need may be increased or decreased. If the need is firmly attached to an unsuitable object, **this is called a fixation and is customarily considered pathological.** However, as Murray indicated, the inability of the need to show any enduring object preference, jumping from object to object, may be just as pathological as a fixation.

Proactive needs and Reactive Needs

Fourth, there are proactive needs and reactive needs. The proactive need is one that is largely determined from within, one that becomes "spontaneously kinetic" as the result of something in the person rather than something in the environment. Reactive needs, on the other hand, are activated as a result of, or in response to, some environmental event. The distinction here is largely that between a response elicited by appropriate stimulation and a response produced in the absence of any important stimulus variation. Murray used these concepts also to describe interaction between two or more persons where usually one individual can be identified as the proactor (initiates the interaction, asks the questions, in general provides the stimulus to which the other must respond) and another individual can be identified as the reactor (reacts to the stimuli provided by the proactor).

5-Process activity, Modal needs, and Effect needs

Fifth, there is the distinction between process activity, modal needs, and effect needs. American psychologists with their conventional emphasis upon function and utility have consistently emphasized effect needs-needs that lead to some desired state or end result. Murray, however, has insisted upon the equal importance of process activity and modal needs-tendencies to perform certain acts for the sake of the performance itself. **The random uncoordinated, nonfunctional operation of various processes (vision, hearing, thought, speech, and so forth) that occurs from birth on is called process activity.** This is **"sheer function pleasure,"** doing for the sake of doing. **Modal needs, on the other hand, involve doing something with a certain degree of excellence or Quality.** It is still the activity that is sought and enjoyed, but it is now rewarding only when it is performed with a certain degree of perfection.

3- Interrelation of Needs

It is evident that needs do not operate in complete isolation from each other, and in situations where two or more needs are aroused simultaneously and motivate incompatible responses, it is the prepotent need (such as pain, hunger, thirst) that ordinarily will be translated into action as prepotent needs cannot be postponed.

A minimal satisfaction of such needs is necessary before other needs can operate. In his investigation of personality Murray habitually employed a set of concepts to represent conflict involving important needs. Thus, it is customary in his research to secure estimates for each subject of the intensity of conflict in certain key areas, for example, autonomy versus compliance, achievement versus pleasure.

Under certain circumstances multiple needs may be gratified by a single course of action. In instances where the outcome of different needs is behaviorally the same, Murray spoke of fusion of needs. Another important kind of relation among needs is referred to by the concept of subsidiation. A subsidiary need is one that operates in the service of another; for instance, the individual may show aggressive needs, but these may be serving only to facilitate greedy

needs. In any instance where the operation of one need is merely instrumental to the satisfaction of another, we speak of the first need as lesser to the second.

Tracing chains of subsidiation can be of great value in revealing the dominant or root motives of the individual.

4- Levels of Analysis

It is important to recognize that Murray's need represents a generalized construct. He drew a distinction between need and aim where aim represents the specific goal adopted by the person as an expression of the need. Murray (1951b) used the example of a general need for dominance and a specific aim of being elected the mayor of a city.

Murray also employed Freud's concept of cathexis. In psychoanalysis, cathexis (or emotional investment) is defined as the process of allocation of mental or emotional energy to a person, object, or idea to refer to the power of an object to evoke a positive or negative need in a person. He claimed that "a personality is largely revealed in the objects that it cathects.

Lesson 31

HENRY MURRAY'S PERSONOLOGY (CONTINUED)

Press:

Just as the concept of "need" represents the significant determinants of behavior within the person; so the concept of "press" represents the effective or significant determinants of behavior in the environment.

In simplest terms a press is a property or attribute of an environmental object or person that facilitates or delays the efforts of the individual to reach a given goal.

Press are linked to persons or objects that have direct implications for the efforts of the individual to satisfy their need strivings

"The *press* of an object is what it can *do to the subject* or *for the subject*-the power that it has to affect the well-being of the subject in one way or another.

The cathexis of an object on the other hand is what it can *make the subject do*" (1938. p. 121).

By representing the environment in terms of press, the investigator hopes to extract and classify the significant portions of the world in which the individual lives

Clearly we know a great deal more about what an individual is likely to do if we have not only a picture of his or her motives or directional tendencies but also a picture of the way in which the person views or interprets their environment.

Murray developed various lists of press for particular purposes. Representative of these is the classification which was designed to represent significant childhood events or influences. In practice these press are not only identified as operating in a given individual's experience but they are also assigned a quantitative rating to indicate their strength or importance in the individual's life

- It is important to distinguish between the significance of environmental objects as they are perceived or interpreted by the individual (beta press)
- The properties of those environmental objects as they exist in reality or as objective inquiry discloses them (alpha press).
- The individual's behavior is most closely correlated with the beta press, but it is nevertheless important

Tension Reduction

Murray conceived of the individual as set into action by a complex set of motives. Further, he granted that when a need is aroused the individual is in a state of tension, and satisfaction of the need involves reduction of the tension. Finally, the organism will learn to attend to objects and perform acts that it has found in the past to be associated with tension reduction.

Although this conventional formulation met with Murray's approval, he contended that it is an incomplete picture. Not only does the individual learn ways respond in such a manner as to reduce tension and thus experience satisfaction, but also he or she learns to respond in such a manner as to develop tension so that it can later be reduced, thereby enhancing the amount of pleasure.

One should note that this formulation applies only to effect needs. In process activity and modal needs the satisfaction is intrinsic to the activity and may be just as intense at the beginning or middle as at the end.

Thema

A thema is simply an interactive behavioral unit. Thus, it deals with the interaction between needs and press. With it one can represent the situations that lead to the operation of particular needs as well as the outcome or resultants of the operation of these needs. Themata vary from simple formulations of a single subject-object interaction to more general and of longer transactions. They also include formulations that represent the combination of a number of simple themata (serial themata). The thema as an analytic unit is a natural outcome of Murray's conviction that interpersonal relations should be formulated as a dyadic unit. That is, the theorist not only must represent the subject who is the focus of interest but also must represent fully the nature of the person with whom the subject is interacting.

Consider two of Murray's examples of episodes. First, an individual who is dishonored by another might respond in kind. This would be coded as rejection press, triggering acceptance need in the individual. Second, a person might make renewed efforts to succeed following failure. This would be conceptualized as achievement need following a failure outcome or press.

Need Integrate

Although needs are not necessarily linked to specific objects in the environment, it often happens that with experience the individual comes to associate particular objects with certain needs. Likewise, particular modes of response, or means of approaching or avoiding these objects, may be acquired and associated with the need. When this integration of the need and the image or thought of the environmental object, as well as instrumental acts, has taken place, Murray speaks of a need integrate. A need integrate is a well-established "thematic disposition" - a need for a certain kind of interaction with a certain kind of person or object. Under circumstances where a need integrate exists, the arousal of the need will ordinarily lead the person to seek in an appropriate way the environmental object corresponding to the image that was a part of the need integrate.

Vector-Value Scheme

Murray proposed that behavioral tendencies be represented in terms of vectors that represent broad "physical or psychological directions of activity." The values that the vectors serve are represented by a series of value concepts. Although the scheme was not completely worked out, Murray provided tentative lists of values and vectors. The vectors (shows magnitude and direction) consist of rejection, reception, acquisition, construction, conservation, expression, transmission, expulsion, destruction and avoidance. The values consist of body (physical well-being), property (useful objects, wealth), authority (decision making power), affiliation (interpersonal affection), knowledge (facts and theories, science, history), aesthetic form (beauty, art), and ideology (system of values, philosophy, religion)xxxxx. In practice it is intended that these vectors and values be arranged in a matrix of intersecting rows and columns so that each cell in the matrix will represent behavior that corresponds to a particular vector in the service of a particular value.

Thus, it is now possible to represent the individual at any point in time as a complex integrate of needs and press or vectors and values, as well as personality structures, abilities, achievements, and sentiments.

Genetic-Maturational Determinants

In a late formulation of his views, Murray (1968b) ascribed an important role to genetic and maturational factors in the development of personality. He conceived of genetic-maturational processes as being responsible for programming a succession of eras throughout an individual's life.

During the first era- that of childhood, adolescence, and young adulthood- new structural compositions emerge and multiply. The middle years are marked by conservative re-compositions of the already emerged structures and functions. In the final era, the capacity for forming new compositions and re-compositions decreases and the atrophy of existing forms and functions increases. Within each period, there are numerous smaller programs of behavioral and experiential events that run under the guidance of genetically controlled maturational processes.

Learning

Learning consists of discovering what generates pleasure and what generates distress for the individual.

These hedonic and anhedonic generators may be classified in several ways. They may be retrospective (memories of past experiences that were delightful or distressful), spective (current experiences), or prospective (anticipations of future pleasures or pains). Current generators may be classified according to whether they are located predominantly in the person, in the environment, or in an interpersonal transaction. These generators may be further subdivided. For example, generators in the person may be located in the body, in some emotional center of the brain, in some type of psychological process, or in the judgments of conscience.

Uniqueness

In spite of his attention to general categories of analysis, Murray always maintained the essential uniqueness of each person, and even of each behavioral event, as a self-evident fact. His respect for naturalistic observation and his creative and intuitive literary talents made it easy for him to grasp and express compellingly the individuality and elusive complexity of each subject or event.

Unconscious Processes

Among academic psychologists Murray was one of the first to accept the pervasive role of unconscious determinants of behavior (Murray, 1936).

Not only is the individual unaware of certain tendencies that influence behavior but, more important, some of these tendencies are actively defended against or warded off from consciousness. Thus, Murray not only accepted the role of unconscious determinants of behavior but also recognized the operation of the Freudian mechanisms of repression and resistance.

The Socialization Process

Murray suggested that the human personality is a compromise between the individual's own impulses and the demands and interests of other people. These demands of other people are represented collectively by the institutions and cultural patterns to which the individual is exposed, and the process is socialization.

Conflicts between the individual and the approved patterns of the society are customarily solved by means of the individual conforming to the group patterns in some manner.

An essential element in achieving the goals of socialization is the development of an adequate superego. An internal structure that serves to reward and punish one when one is behaving appropriately or inappropriately in terms of the culture pattern as interpreted by these authority figures. This implies that the parents, as the most important authority figures, are the chief agents of the socialization process. The effectiveness of the parents in rewarding approved and punishing disapproved patterns of behavior will largely determine the success of this developmental process. An important component of the parent's role as socializer is the effectiveness with which they develop a mutually affectionate relationship with the child so that

mere approval or disapproval can serve as significantly motivating conditions in controlling the child's behavior.

Characteristic Research and Research Methods

Let us examine very briefly several distinctive qualities of Murray's general approach to personality research.

1-Intensive Study of Small Numbers of Normal Subjects

(His focus was on studying individual cases not group cases) Murray was convinced that an adequate understanding of behavior must follow a complete and detailed study of individual subjects. Just as case study has provided indispensable assistance in the growth and development of medical science, so the future of psychology is linked to the willingness of investigators to take the time and effort to understand thoroughly individual cases. Group relations are important only when accompanied by a careful inquiry into the deviations within the group and conditions that cause or accompany these deviations. (he wants to study normal subjects not sick or belong to clinical population) To report a finding that characterizes 80 percent of a specified group is of little value unless some explanation can be provided for the failure of the other 20 percent to fit into this pattern. Murray's consistent emphasis on this point was one of his principal contributions to research methods.

A further distinctive quality of his research has been its emphasis upon the study of normal individuals in natural settings. In general, the intensive study of individual cases has been reserved for the clinical setting where the pathology of the patients has made them a subject of particular interest or else the demands of diagnostic or therapeutic expediency have necessitated extensive information. Thus,

Murray's choice of the normal subject as the focus of his research provided a natural complement to the case histories available from psychiatric settings.

Murray (1958) believed that the ultimate concern of the personologist is to explain and predict the individual's activities in everyday life. For that reason, he or she should not be content to limit predictions to the subculture of the laboratory or try to understand the individual merely by validating one test against the other.

He was also one of the pioneers in interdisciplinary co-operation in personality research.

The Diagnostic Council

Murray placed great emphasis upon the importance of the observer or the psychologist as an instrument, in psychological research. Although we may use rating scales, category sets, or psychological tests to appraise personality, still, at the base of all these instruments is the sensitive observation of the investigator or clinician. Because of the root status of the observer, Murray was convinced that more attention should be paid to his serious efforts directed at improving their powers of observation. These considerations led him to refer to the psychologist as the most important "instrument of precision" in psychological research.

One evident means of placing checks upon, and improving the quality of, observation is to have multiple observers all examining the same data from a different perspective. Thus, using a number of investigators to study the same individual or individuals offers unique rewards in the form of canceling out limitations posed by the biases of particular observers or the limitations offered by specialized sets of data. Not only is the end result of such group observation presumably superior to individual observation but the members of the group should sharpen and improve their powers of observation as a result of the corrective function of the observations of others.

These considerations led Murray to devise the diagnostic council, which involves many observers all studying the same subjects from different points of view with the opportunity for a final discussion and synthesis of the information secured from these different vantage points.

After a period of individual observation during which each investigator studies the subjects through his or her own specialized techniques, there is a conference for each subject. At this time every investigator presents his or her data and interpretation with a full opportunity for the

observations and interpretations of other observers to support or suggest modifications in the report. A single investigator has primary responsibility for assembling and presenting the synthesis of each case, but each member of the council is given an unlimited opportunity for contributing to this final product.

Instruments of Personality Measurement

No one has made more significant contributions to personality assessment than Murray. He devised a large number of ingenious devices for the measurement of personality, only a small number of which have been systematically exploited. The volumes *Explorations in personality* and *Assessment of men* provide ample illustration of the instruments he devised or was influential in developing.

One of these, the Thematic Apperception Test, has become, next to the Rorschach Test, the most widely used projective technique in current use (Lindzey, 1961; Murstein, 1963; Zubin, Eron, & Schumer, 1965. see Kaplan & Saccuzzo, 1993, for a recent review).

Representative Studies

Murray and his collaborators at the Psychological Clinic conducted extensive research. Murray began *Explorations in personality* with a commitment to adopting "the life history of a single man as a unit" for investigation (1938, p. 3). One of Murray's clear legacies has been the commitment among many of his students to study personality "the long way," by attending in depth to individual lives (e.g., White, 1963b, 1975, 1981). His research agenda has been carried forward by former students, such as Donald MacKinnon

In Murray's second major book, *The assessment of men* (Office of Strategic Services Assessment Staff, 1948), he described assessment procedures he and his staff had employed at the United States Office of Strategic Services during World War II. Most of those procedures represented attempts to understand the personalities of candidates being screened for secret, overseas assignments. This work was noteworthy for its multidimensional, pragmatic orientation. The assessments entailed self-report tests, interviews, observations, and situational tests. For example, applicants "leadership" skills ostensibly were measured

Lesson 32

ALBERT BANDURA'S SOCIAL LEARNING THEORY

Social Learning theorists explain behavior in terms of interaction between cognitive, behavioral and environmental determinants. Bandura is a Social Learning theorist.

Bandura consider learning principles to be sufficient to explain and predict behavior and behavior change.

The focus is on interaction, between the external stimuli and internal cognitions in a social context.

1. Bandura suggests most human behavior is learned by observation. In Modeling we observe the behavior of others and use the information as a guide for our own behavior.
2. Bandura and his colleagues have demonstrated that subjects allowed to observe a set of responses performed by another individual (the *model*) tend to exhibit these same responses (model) when placed in a similar setting.

Example: Our behavior develops as a result of observational learning. We observe the available models and imitate these models. Such as our parents, teachers, politicians, film heroes, celebrities and even fictional characters like Superman, Spiderman.

1-BIOGRAPHICAL SKETCH

Bandura has been the recipient of the Distinguished Scientist Award of the American Psychological Association's Division of Clinical Psychology, the Distinguished Scientific

Contribution Award from the American Psychological Association, and the Distinguished Contribution Award of the International Society for Research on Aggression.

Bandura (1959) wrote *Adolescent aggression*, a detailed report of a field study in which social learning principles were used to analyze the personality development of a group of middle-class delinquent boys,

Social learning and personality development (1963), a volume in which he and Walters presented the social learning principles they had developed and the evidence on which the theory was based.

In 1969 Bandura published *Principles of behavior modification*, in which he outlined the application of behavioral techniques based on learning principles to the modification of behavior

In 1973, he published *Aggression: A social learning analysis. Social learning-theory* (1977b). In which Bandura has "attempted to provide a unified theoretical framework for analyzing human thought and behavior"

Social foundations of thought and action (1986) provides a more detailed treatment of the theory. In addition to these theoretical statements

In their 1941 book, *Social learning and imitation*, Miller and Dollard had recognized the significant role played by imitative processes in personality development and had sought to develop explanations of certain kinds of imitative behavior.

Bandura's 1974 article, "Behavior theories and the models of man," provides a relatively summary of his point of view:

"Our theories have been incredibly slow in acknowledging that man can learn by observation as well as by direct experience. . . . The rudimentary form of learning based on direct experience has been exhaustively studied, whereas the more pervasive and powerful mode of learning by observation is largely ignored. A shift of emphasis is needed. (p. 863)"

Bandura's career has been devoted to encouraging that shift.

2- Reconceptualization of Reinforcement

Bandura greatly broadens the definition of reinforcement. When people observe the outcomes of their own behavior and the behavior of others, they develop hypotheses about the likely consequences of producing that behavior in the future. This information then serves as a guide for succeeding behavior. Accurate hypotheses produce successful performance, and inaccurate hypotheses lead to ineffective behavior. (Notice the similarity to George Kelly's point about "construing replications") In other words, reinforcers provide information about what a person must do in order to secure desired outcomes and to avoid punishing outcomes. As a consequence, reinforcement can only occur when a person is aware of the possibilities and expects that they will apply to future behavior. Humans' ability to anticipate outcomes also accounts for the motivation value of reinforcers: "By representing foreseeable outcomes symbolically, people can convert future consequences into current motivators of behavior. Most actions are thus largely under anticipatory control" (Bandura, 1977b, p; 18). For Bandura, then, a reinforcer functions primarily as "an informative and motivational operation rather than as a mechanical response strengthener" (1977b, p. 21). As a consequence, Bandura considers "regulation" to be a more appropriate term than "reinforcement." Bandura also rejects the Skinnerian understanding of how reinforcement functions. In observational learning, reinforcement serves as "an antecedent" rather than a "consequent" influence. That is, anticipated reinforcement is one of several factors that can influence a person to pay attention to a model, and it can also encourage a person to rehearse the behavior that has been observed. From Bandura's point of view reinforcement facilitates learning in an anticipatory manner by encouraging the observer to pay attention and to rehearse the observed behavior. Bandura even proposes that direct reinforcement is not necessary in order for learning to occur. Bandura adds two other types of reinforcement to the classical concept of "direct reinforcement" as a stimulus whose presence increases the frequency of occurrence for a behavior with which it is paired. First, "self-reinforcement" occurs when an individual compares his or her own

behavior to internal standard. If the behavior meets those standards, the person may experience satisfaction, or pride, but if the behavior violates or falls short of those standards the person responds with guilt, shame, or dissatisfaction. Bandura is suggesting that any behavior produces two sets of consequences: self-evaluations and external outcomes. External consequences have the greatest effect on behavior when they are compatible with self-generated consequences. Behavior is maintained by its consequences, but those consequences are not only externally applied.

As a second new type of reinforcement, Bandura suggests that "vicarious reinforcement" occurs when an individual witnesses someone else experience reinforcing or punishing consequences for a behavior, and that individual anticipates similar consequences if she or he produces the same behavior. Thus, an individual may be reinforced without producing a behavior or experiencing a consequence. "Observed consequences can change behavior in much the same manner as directly experienced consequences". Much as Skinner had suggested that Thorndike's trial-and-error learning was an inefficient and unlikely way to acquire complex behaviors, so Bandura suggests that Skinner's operant conditioning is an impractical and dangerous means for humans to acquire many behaviors. In contrast, most human behavior is learned observationally by modeling: We observe the behavior of others and use the information as a guide for our own subsequent behavior. We turn now to Bandura's description of modeling.

3- Principles of Observational Learning

Bandura (1962, 1977b, 1986) proposes that a fundamental way humans acquire skills and behaviors is by observing the behavior of others. Such observational learning, or modeling, is governed by four constituent processes: attention, retention, production, and motivation.

i- Attentional Process

People cannot learn anything unless they pay attention to and accurately perceive significant features of the to-be-modeled behavior. We are most likely to pay attention to behaviors that are salient, simple, and promise to have some functional value. As a consequence, a model that is vivid, attractive, competent, and seen repeatedly is more likely to catch our attention. In addition, what a person notices is influenced by his or her knowledge base and current orientation. The characteristics of the observers also determine how much imitative behavior takes place in a given situation.

The characteristics of both the model and observer often jointly determine what will occur? A particularly informative study showing the interplay of model and observer was performed by Hetherington and

Frankie (1967) with young children and their parents. The Investigators first determined by observing the parents the degree of warmth and nurturance each expressed toward the child and which parent was dominant in matters of child care. Subsequently, the child watched each parent play with toys and games supplied by the investigator, following which the child was allowed to play with the same materials and the amount of his or her Imitative behavior recorded. Children of both sexes were much more likely to imitate a warm, nurturant parent than a cool or punitive one, but the largest effect was found with girls whose mothers were warm. By and large, the dominant parent also commanded more Imitative behavior, although when the father was dominant, girls imitated the mother somewhat more than the father.

ii-Retention Processes

A behavior cannot be reproduced unless we have remembered it by coding it in symbolic form. Retention of observed behavior depends mainly upon mental Images and verbal representations. Memory can be enhanced by organization of the material and by rehearsal. The material that is retained often is transformed to correspond to some existing knowledge or expectation on the part of the learner.

iii-Production Process

The learner must be able to reproduce the behavior that has been observed. An observed behavior, no matter how well it has been retained, cannot be enacted without the necessary skills and abilities.

Sometimes the production problem stems from a lack of the requisite cognitive or motor skills, but often it reflects the performer's lack of feedback about what she or he actually is doing. This is true in learning many athletic skills, but it also is a frequent problem with social behaviors. "It can be extremely informative, and unnerving, to see or hear tapes of our own behavior. Trial and error, practice, and feedback all contribute to what is often a gradual process of translating knowledge into action.

iv- Motivational Processes

Bandura's social learning theory emphasizes the distinction between acquisition and performance because people do not enact everything they learn. Performance of observed behavior is influenced by three kinds of Incentives: direct, vicarious, and self-administered. A learned behavior will be enacted if it leads directly to a desired outcome, if it has been observed to be effective for the model, or if it is self-satisfying. In other words, we are likely to produce a behavior if we believe that it is in our best interest to do so.

Lesson 33

ALBERT BANDURA'S SOCIAL LEARNING THEORY

Imitation

The critical role Bandura assigns to imitation in personality development is best seen in his analysis of its contribution to the acquisition of novel responses. In a series of experiments done with children, Bandura and his colleagues have demonstrated that subjects allowed to observe an unusual set of responses performed by another individual (the model) tend to exhibit these same responses when placed in a similar setting.

In one representative study (Bandura, Ross, & Ross, 1961), nursery school children, tested one at a time, watched an adult model perform a series of particular aggressive acts, physical and verbal, toward a large toy Bobo doll. Other children saw a non-aggressive adult who sat quietly in the experimental room and paid no attention to the doll. Later, the children were mildly frustrated and then placed alone in the room with the doll. The behavior of the groups tended to be congruent with the adult models. The children who had seen an aggressive adult themselves performed more aggressive acts than a control group given no prior experience with a model and made more responses than the control children that were quite exact imitations of the model's behaviors. Further, the children who had observed a non-aggressive adult made even fewer aggressive responses than the control subjects.

As this experiment illustrates,

1. 1-Children can learn novel responses merely by observing others.
2. 2- Of equal importance, it shows that learning can take place without the children having had the opportunity to make the response themselves and without either the model or themselves having been rewarded or reinforced for the behavior.

The capacity to perform novel responses observed some time before but never actually practiced is made possible by the human's cognitive abilities. The stimuli provided by the model are transformed into images of what the model did or said or looked like and, even more important, are transformed into verbal symbols that can later be recalled. These symbolic, cognitive skills also allow individuals to transform what they have learned or combine what they have observed in a number of models into new patterns of behavior. Thus, by observing others, one may develop novel, innovative solutions and not merely slavish imitations.

In human cultures, novel behavior is very frequently acquired by observing the behavior of others. Often the instruction is quite direct; a child for example, learns what he or she sees

others do. But Individuals may also be influenced by models presented in more symbolic forms. Pictorial presentations, such as those in movies and television, are highly influential sources of models.

Bandura, Ross, and Ross (1963a), for example, found that children who watched the aggressive behavior of a live adult model were equal in their tendency to imitate than children who were shown a movie of the same behavior or even an animated cartoon.

Example: All films, Television dramas and cartoons where heroes or models behave aggressive are teaching observers to be aggressive and violent.

1- Sutan Rahi films or Van Dam movies.

2-“Waris “ a TV drama set the stage for aggressive television plays.

3-All cartoons films.

Bandura suggests that exposure to models:

First if a model's behavior may simply serve to provoke the performance of similar responses. This facilitating effect is especially likely to occur when the behavior is of a socially acceptable nature.

The second way a model may influence an observer occurs when the model is performing a deviant behavior. The observer's inhibitions about performing the behavior may be strengthened or weakened by watching the model, depending on whether the model's behavior has been punished or rewarded.

Rosekrans and Hartup (1967), for example, demonstrated that children who saw a model's aggressive behavior being consistently rewarded subsequently showed a high degree of imitative aggression while those who saw it consistently punished exhibited practically no imitative behavior. Children exposed to a model sometimes rewarded and sometimes punished displayed an intermediate amount of aggression.

The types of vicarious learning we have been discussing involve actions falling into the general category of instrumental or operant responses. Bandura (1969) has pointed to another kind of learning based on the observation of a model that is crucial in social **learning theory, namely the vicarious acquisition of classically conditioned emotional responses**. Not only may observers exposed to the emotional reactions of a model experience similar reactions, but they may also begin to respond emotionally to stimuli that produced these reactions in the model. In an illustrative experiment, Bandura and Rosenthal (1966) had each subject watch as a model, introduced as an actual subject was presented with a series of buzzer signals. Following each occurrence of the buzzer, the model simulated a variety of pain reactions that the subject was falsely told were provoked by an intense shock delivered immediately after the buzzer. As indicated by a physiological measure of emotional responsiveness, the subjects came to exhibit a conditioned emotional response to the buzzer, even in test trials in which the model was absent and despite the fact that they never directly experienced the painful unconditioned stimulus supposedly administered to the model.

4-Reciprocal Determinism

Bandura (1978) suggests that explanations of human behavior typically have been provided in terms of a limited set of determinants acting in a unidirectional manner. **Learning theorists, for example, suggest that behavior is controlled by situational forces.**

Social learning theory conceptualizes behavior in terms of reciprocal determinism; that is, personal influences, environmental forces, and behavior itself function as interdependent rather than determinants. The effect of each of the three components is conditional on the others.



For example, the environment is a potentiality whose effects depend on the organism's understanding of it and behavior in it. Similarly, a person plays different roles and has different expectations across different situations, people seek out and create the environments to which they respond, and behavior itself contributes to defining the environment and the person's understanding of who he or she is. Bandura is suggesting, in part, that people do not simply react to the external environment; rather, external factors influence behavior only through the mediation of a person's cognitive processes. By altering their environment or by creating conditional self-inducements, people influence the stimuli to which they respond.

Over the years, many writers have recognized that individual dispositions and situational forces interact to produce behavior, but these interaction processes have been conceptualized in three very different ways. In **unidirectional Interaction**, persons and situations are regarded as independent entities that combine to generate behavior. According to Bandura, this point of view is simplistic, because personal and environmental factors in fact influence one another. In a **bidirectional conception** of Interaction, persons and situations are regarded as interdependent causes, but behavior is seen only as a consequence that does not figure in the causal process. In the social learning view of reciprocal determinism, behavior, environmental forces, and personal characteristics all function as "interlocking determinants, of each other."

Bandura is making the point that we must be flexible in considering the interactions of person, behavior, and environment. For example, suppose that we notice a student who is talking before class. How are we to understand that behavior? A personality approach might talk about the person being talkative, a learning approach would look for environmental reinforcers for the talking behavior, and an interactionist approach would consider the contributions of both the person and the situation to the behavior. Bandura, however, suggests that we recognize the reciprocal determining relationship among the person, the behavior, and the environment. That is, the person has a tendency to talk and the environment reinforces talking, but it is also the case that talking feeds back to make the person more likely to talk in the future, and the talking behavior also contributes to making a classroom the sort of setting in which talking occurs. Furthermore, we need to realize that the person contributes to the nature of the environment, just as the environment influences who the person is. Person, situation, and behavior are Indivisibly Knotted.

Reciprocal determinism also provides Bandura with an account of freedom and determinism that sounds much like that provided by George Kelly. That is, people are free to the extent that they can influence the future conditions to which they will respond, but their behavior also is bound by the reciprocal relationship among personal cognition, behavior, and the environment. As Bandura (1978, pp. 356-357) puts it,

"Because people's conceptions, their behavior, and their environments are reciprocal determinants of each other. Individuals are neither powerless objects controlled by environmental forces nor entirely free agents who can do whatever they choose."

Bandura treats the cognitive, dynamic factors that regulate and are regulated by both behavior and the environment. Bandura discusses the personal determinants of behavior in terms of the self-system and the individual's self-efficacy. We now turn to consideration of these person variables.

5- The Self-System

"In social learning theory, a self-system is not a psychic agent that controls behavior. Rather, it refers to cognitive structures that provide reference mechanisms and to a set of subfunctions for the perception, evaluation, and regulation of behavior" (1978, p. 348). (person perception of their ability to achieve the goal) Furthermore, an understanding of the self-generated influences subsumed in the self-system is necessary for the explanation and prediction of human behavior. The three component processes involved in the self-regulation of behavior through the activation of self-prescribed contingencies. Taken as a set, these processes define the self-system and provide the bases for self-reinforcement of behavior. We will consider each of the three components in turn.

i - Self-Observation

- We continually observe our own behavior, noting such factors as the:
 - i- Quality
 - ii- Quantity
 - iii- Originality of what we do
- Temporary mood states and motivation for change also can influence how one's performances are monitored and processed.
- **Example:**
You have an exam so you monitor yourself
 - i- Quality of your preparation,
 - ii- Quantity of your preparation,
 - iii- Originality of the preparation (what you do, how you learn)

ii - Judgmental Process

- Behavior generates a self-reaction through judgments about the correspondence between that behavior and personal standards.
- Judgments also vary depending on the importance of the activity being judged as well as individual attributions as to the determinants of the behavior.

We are more critical of behaviors that are important and for which we hold ourselves to be responsible

iii- Self-Reaction

- The self-appraisals produced through the operation of the first two components set the stage for the individual to render an evaluation of the behavior.

Favorable appraisals generate rewarding self-reactions, and unfavorable judgments activate punishing self-responses

- Parents, peers, and other socializing agents set behavioral standards, rewarding the individual for living up to them and expressing their displeasure when the person fails.
- These norms form the basis for reinforcing the self- systems.

Example:

- Your parents, peers, teachers (socializing agents) reward you for all the good deeds you perform
- and express their displeasure when you fail to do so.
- Under certain conditions, children are more likely to model themselves after peers than adults (Bandura, Grusec, & Menlove, 1967b)
- or after models whose achievement standards are within their reach rather than those who set them beyond the child's capacity (Bandura & Whalen, 1966).
- The self-system does not function as independent controller of behavior.
- External factors affect these self-regulatory processes in at least three ways:
 1. First, as we have seen the internal standards against which behavior is judged are extracted from our experiences.

2. Second, environmental influences alter the manner in which we judge our behavior. For example a vast system of rewards including praise, social recognition, and honors.
3. Finally, there are external factors that promote the "selective activation (you attend to some influences of interest) and disengagement"(selective inattention) of self-reactive influences.

6- Applications to Therapy

- In fact, Bandura's first book, Principles of behavior modification (1969), is almost exclusively devoted to a discussion of such techniques, including several novel methods he and his associates have developed for eliminating unrealistic fear reactions
- Thus, persons with unrealistic or exaggerated fears should be able to reduce emotional reactions by watching a model interact fearlessly with the anxiety-provoking object or event and reduce them still further by practicing the model's behavior in a non-threatening, situation under the guidance.
- Numerous experiments using various modeling techniques with both children and adults have yielded highly encouraging results.
- A study performed by Bandura, Blanchard, and Ritter (1969) adolescents and adults suffering from a severe snake phobia were assigned to one of three treatment groups. Members of the desensitization group were presented with a graded series of imaginably scenes involving snakes while deeply relaxed
- In the second group a symbolic modeling condition was used in which the subjects watched a man showing models in progressively closer interactions with a large snake, also while maintaining a relaxed state.
- The third group observed a live model perform similar responses with an actual snake. After each of these interactions these latter subjects were asked to perform the same behavior as the model, initially with the model's assistance and later alone
- All subjects were asked to try to perform a graded series of tasks involving snakes both before and after treatment.
- While control subjects, who were given only these two test series and no intervening treatment, showed essentially no change in their behavior, a marked increase in approach behavior was noted in the desensitization and symbolic modeling groups following treatment. The most successful technique, however, was participant modeling, that is, the one in which subjects were exposed to an actual model and given guided experience in interacting with the phobic object however, was participant modeling, that is, the one in which subjects were exposed to an actual model and given guided experience in interacting with the phobic object.

7- Research

His research is on aggression and learning of aggressive behavior in children.

8- Summary

- 1-Social Learning theorists explain behavior in terms of interaction between cognitive, behavioral and environmental determinants. Bandura is a Social Learning theorist.
- 2-Bandura suggests most human behavior is learned by observation. In Modeling we observe the behavior of others and use the information as a guide for our own behavior.
- 3- New type of reinforcement, Bandura suggests that "vicarious reinforcement" occurs when an individual witnesses someone else experience reinforcing or punishing consequences for a behavior, and that individual anticipates similar consequences if she or he produces the same behavior.
- 4- Such observational learning, or modeling, is governed by four constituent processes: attention, retention, production, and motivation.

5- All films, Television dramas and cartoons where heroes or models behave aggressive are teaching observers to be aggressive and violent.

9- Evaluation

His social learning theory emphasizes on the observational learning and the role of modeling in personality development.

Lesson 34

THE STIMULUS RESPONSE THEORY OF DOLLARD AND MILLER

The concept of habit, which represents a stable Stimulus-Response connection (SR), is crucial to this position. In fact, most of the theory is concerned with specifying the conditions under which habits form and are dissolved.

Habit is the key concept in the theory by Dollard and Miller.

A *habit*, we have seen, is a link or association between a stimulus (cue) and a response.

Learned associations or habits may be formed not only between external stimuli and obvious responses but between internal ones as well. The bulk of their theory is concerned with specifying the conditions under which habits are acquired and extinguished or replaced, with little or no attention given to specifying classes of habits or listing the major varieties of habits that people exhibit.

Biographical Sketch

Both had very different backgrounds Dollard in Sociology and Miller in Experimental Psychology yet they joined efforts in developing a Stimulus –Response Theory or S-R linkage or association.

I .Pavlov discovered a type of learning that became known as classical conditioning.

Pavlov was able to demonstrate that by simultaneous presentation of Unconditioned Stimulus-US (meat powder) and a Conditioned Stimulus –CS (sound of footsteps or a bell) would provoke. A response (salivation) which was originally elicited by Unconditioned Stimulus (US). This act of salivating at the sound of the footsteps or bell is called Conditioned Response.

J. Watson proposed that psychology should study behavior using the same types of objective techniques as natural sciences. His focus was on overt behavior of individual.

E .Thorndike was demonstrating the importance of reward and punishment in the learning process.

Thorndike, Hull, Spence, and Guthrie focused on the learning process as involving the associative linkage between stimulus and response.

Most cognitive processes are actually Stimulus Response association.

Skinner rejected Hull's approach the goal of Skinner's science is to control, prediction and interpretation of behavior.

He gave the concept of Operant Conditioning.

He proposed that organisms can learn complicated behaviors by shaping, using the successive approximations technique.

Successive Approximations Technique

We start reinforcing a behavior that is the first toward final behavior and then gradually reinforce successively closer approximations to the final behavior.

Example: Learning to drive a car or teaching a retarded child how to feed himself.

What is learning?

According to this theory, in the simplest it is the study of the circumstances under which a response and a stimulus (cue) become connected.

When learning is completed the SR are bound together so the appearance of stimulus (cue) evokes the response.

In order to learn:

- 1- One must want something (drive)
- 2- Notice something (cue-stimulus)

- 3- Do something (response)
- 4- Get something (reward)

Example:

For learning behavior to take place within the subject:

- 1- One must want something (cash)
- 2- Notice something (taxi)
- 3- Do something (taxi driving)
- 4- Get something (money)

For a habit to be established the cue-stimulus and response should occur close together not only in space and in time but the response should be rewarded.

1-The Structure of Personality

Dollard and Miller have consistently shown less interest in the structure of personality than in the process of learning and personality development. Habit is the key concept in the learning theory by Dollard and Miller.

- i- A *habit*, we have seen, is a link or association between a stimulus (cue) and a response. Learned associations or habits may be formed not only between external stimuli and overt responses but between internal ones as well.
- ii- The bulk of their theory is concerned with specifying the conditions under which habits are acquired and extinguished or replaced, with little or no attention given to specifying classes of habits or listing the major varieties of habits that people exhibit.

2- The Dynamics of Personality

Dollard and Miller are explicit in defining the nature of motivation and they specify in considerable detail the development and elaboration of motives. Instead they have focused on certain salient motives such as anxiety. In their analysis of these they have attempted to illustrate the general process that can be expected to operate for all motives.

In the process of growth the typical individual develops a large number of secondary drives that serve to instigate behavior.

In the typical modern society secondary drive stimulation largely replaces the original function of primary drive stimulation. Acquired drives such as anxiety, shame, and the desire to please impel most of our actions.

It should be obvious also that most of the reinforcements in the ordinary life of human subjects are not primary rewards but originally neutral events that have acquired reward value by virtue of having consistently been experienced in conjunction with primary reinforcement. A mother's smile, for example, becomes a powerful acquired or *secondary reward* for the infant, with its repeated association with feeding, diapering, and other caretaking activities that bring pleasure or remove physical discomfort. Secondary rewards often serve, by themselves, to reinforce behavior. Their capacity to reinforce is not sustained indefinitely, however, unless they continue to occur on occasion in conjunction with primary reinforcement. How these changes take place leads us to the general question of the development of personality."

Lesson 35

THE STIMULUS RESPONSE THEORY OF DOLLARD AND MILLER

3- The Development of Personality

The transformation of the simple infant into the complex adult is elaborated by Dollard and Miller.

- i- Innate Equipment

- ii- The Learning Process
- iii- Secondary Drive and the Learning Process
- iv- Higher Mental Processes
- v- The Social Context
- vi- Critical Stages of Development

The development of personality includes the following stages

Innate Equipment

The transformation of the simple infant into the complex adult is a matter of little interest to some theorists, but this process is elaborated by Dollard and Miller. We shall present a brief consideration of the innate equipment of the infant.

First the baby has specific reflexes which are responses to specific stimuli, example its cold the baby would sneeze, if some dust particle gets in the nose the baby would sneeze, if some dust particle gets in eye it would begin to have tears-----a stimulus- response.

Second the baby has a number of innate hierarchies of responses which are tendencies for certain responses to occur / appear in particular stimulus situations, example loud noise and the baby would cry, hungry it would cry, wet or dirty it would cry --- a stimulus- response.

Third the baby possess a set of primary drives which are linked to physiological processes, example all primary motives hunger, rest, sleep--- a stimulus- response

Fourth the extinction and elimination of existing associations between stimuli and responses

The Learning Process

What is learning?

According to this theory, in the simplest it is the study of the circumstances under which a response and a stimulus (cue) become connected. When learning is completed the SR are bound together so the appearance of stimulus (cue) evokes the response.

In order to learn:

- 1- One must want something (drive)
- 2- Notice something (cue-stimulus)
- 3- Do something (response)
- 4- Get something (reward)

An exceedingly important part in the learning process must be assigned to *response* factors. As Dollard

and Miller point out, before a given response can be linked to a given cue, the response must occur. Thus, a crucial stage in the organism's learning is the production of the appropriate response. In any given situation certain responses will be more likely to appear than others.

This order of preference or probability of response, when the situation is first presented is referred to as the **initial hierarchy** of responses. After experience and learning have influenced the individual's behavior in this situation, the derived order of response is labeled the **resultant hierarchy**. These concepts simply remind us that in any environmental setting the potential responses an individual may make have a different probability of occurring and can be ranked in terms of this probability.

Secondary Drive and the Learning Process

We have already seen that the infant is born with a limited range of primary drives that develop into a complex system of secondary drives with growth and experience.

Strong stimuli, such as shock, may elicit intense internal responses, which in turn produce still further internal stimuli. These internal stimuli act as *cues* to guide or control subsequent responses and serve as *drive* that activates the organism and keeps the person active until reinforcement occurs or some other process, such as fatigue, intervenes. The overt responses that result in reinforcement are the ones that are learned. (fear and phobia).

A previously neutral cue that has regularly occurred in conjunction with a drive producing stimulus may gain the capacity to elicit some part of the internal responses initially elicited only

by the drive. So whenever strong stimuli occur it will respond by fear. Secondary drives operate just like primary ones.

These learned internal responses then automatically set off drive stimuli. A secondary drive has been established and will motivate the organism to new learning that leads to reinforcement just as will primary drives.

Higher Mental Processes

The individual's interactions with the environment are of two varieties: those that are direct and guided by a single cue or cue situation and those that are facilitated by internal processes. It is the latter class of responses that is of interest here, those mediated by cue-producing responses.

Following Hull, Dollard and Miller distinguish between responses that are instrumental, possess some immediate effect upon the environment, and those that are cue-producing, whose main function is to mediate or lead the way to another response.

One of the most important cue producing responses is labeling or naming of events and experiences. The individual may generalize or transfer between two or more cue situations by identifying them as having the same label for example a person may identify two different situations as going to America or taking an examination as "threatening".

The ability to use language and other response –produced cues is greatly influenced by culture and society in which an individual develops so theorists say that "people receive an enormous amount of social training in putting words and sentences together in ways that lead to adaptive solution of problems". Obviously, language is involved in most cue-producing responses although it need not be spoken language.

Critical Stages of Development

Dollard and Miller assume that unconscious conflict, learned for the most part during infancy and childhood, serves as the basis for most severe emotional problems in later life. They agree with psychoanalytic theorists in considering experiences of the first half dozen years of life crucial determinants of adult behavior.

The Social Context

It is important to realize that neurotic conflict is not only learned by the child but it is learned primarily as a result of conditions created by the parent. This unfortunate capacity of the parent for impairing the child's development stems in part from the fact that cultural prescriptions concerning the child are contradictory or discontinuous and in part from the fact that the child during infancy is not well equipped to cope with complex learning demands even if they are consistent. Thus, society demands that the child learn to be aggressive in some situations and submissive in other very similar situations, a difficult discrimination at best. Worst of all, this demand may be made at a time when the child does not have at its command all the symbolic functions contributed by language so that such discriminations may simply overreach its learning capacity with resultant frustration and emotional upheaval. A similar set of overwhelming conditions may occur in adulthood under exceptional circumstances such as war. As might be expected, such conditions frequently lead to neurosis.

4- Applications of the Model

i--Unconscious Processes

We have observed that Dollard and Miller represent language as playing a crucial role in human development. In view of this, it is quite natural that those determinants of behavior that include language, or are unconscious, should play a key role in behavioral disturbances. The theory is quite consistent with psychoanalytic formulations in accepting unconscious factors as important determinants of behavior; however, the account offered by Dollard and Miller of the origin of these unconscious processes shows little similarity to the Freudian version.

ii--Conflict

No human being operates so effectively that all of his tendencies are congruent and well-integrated.

Consequently, all personality theories must deal directly or indirectly with the problems posed for the organism by conflicting motives or tendencies. Conflict behavior is represented by Miller and Dollard in terms of five basic assumptions that are extensions of the principles we have already discussed.

- i- They assume *first* that the tendency to approach a goal becomes stronger the nearer the individual is to the goal and this is referred to as the **gradient of approach**.
- ii- *Second*, they assume that the tendency to avoid a negative stimulus becomes stronger the nearer the individual is to the stimulus and this is referred to as the **gradient of avoidance**. These assumptions can be derived primarily from the principle of stimulus generalization, which we have already described.
- iii- The *third* assumption is that the gradient of avoidance is steeper than the gradient of approach. This implies that the rate at which avoidance tendencies increase with approach to the goal is greater than the rate at which approach tendencies increase under the same conditions.
- iv- *Fourth*, it is assumed that an increase in the drive associated with the approach or avoidance will raise the general level of the gradient. Thus, there will still be an increase in the strength of approach or avoidance as the goal is approached but these tendencies will now have a greater strength at each stage of approach.
- v- *Fifth*, it is assumed that when there are two competing responses the stronger will occur. Given these assumptions, in addition to the concepts we have already discussed, Miller and Dollard are able to derive predictions concerning the manner in which an individual faced with the various types of conflict will respond.

One of the most important types of conflict is concerned with the opposition between approach and a voidance tendencies aroused simultaneously by the same object or situation; let us say that a young man is strongly attracted to a woman and yet finds himself embarrassed and uncomfortable (afraid) in her presence.

A second type of conflict is encountered when the individual is faced with two competing avoidance responses. For example, a small boy may be afraid to climb and at the same time wish to avoid being called a coward by his playmates. Thus, the nearer he comes to the one goal (the higher he climbs), the stronger the avoidance response and the more likely he will be to retreat. However, as he retreats he comes closer to the other goal (being called a coward) and the second avoidance response increases while the first decreases. Thus, the individual should show vacillation, turning first from one goal and then from the other.

How Neurosis is Learned

According to stimulus response theory neurosis or neurotic conflicts are taught by parents and learned by children, four critical learning situations that are feeding situation, toilet training , sex education and training to control aggression are usually mishandled by parents that develops anxiety and guilt in child which continues in adult life. It is called Neurotic conflict.

5- Psychotherapy

Dollard and Miller are concerned not only with the development of neuroses but also with their treatment.

The essence of their approach to psychotherapy is straightforward.

The Process Therapy

The actual therapeutic procedures that Dollard and Miller advocate are quite traditional.

The therapist should be a sympathetic, permissive listener who encourages the patient to express all his or her feelings and to free associate.

Whatever the patient's thoughts, the therapist remains non-punitive and tries to help the patient understand these feelings and how they developed.

These are all stimulus response connections that have taken place and person must understand it.

Lesson 36

SKINNER'S THEORY OF PERSONALITY

Radical Behaviorism is the brand of Psychology that is practically synonymous with Skinner's name.

Biographical Sketch

The son of a small-town lawyer, Skinner was born in 1904 and raised in small town Pennsylvania, in a warm and stable family setting. It is interesting to note the inventor of the "Skinner box," the "baby box," and various teaching machines observe in regard to his childhood.

He found time to begin a novel, *Walden-II* (1948), which described the evolution of an experimental society based on psychological principles.

Skinner was accorded many honors including the Distinguished Scientific Award of the American Psychological Association, membership in the National Academy of Sciences, the Gold Medal Award of the American Psychological Foundation, serving as the William James Lecturer at Harvard, and received the presidents Medal of science.

Books

1. 1-Walden-II
2. 2-The behavior of organisms (1938),
3. 3-science and human behavior (1953)
4. 4-Verbal behavior (1957), a collection of papers entitled Cumulative record (1961).
5. 6-The technology of teaching (1968) detailed his approach to learning in the school setting.
6. 7-Contingencies of reinforcement (1969) (Beyond freedom and dignity (1971), probably his most controversial book.)
7. 9-Skinner published a three-volume autobiography (1976, 1979, and 1983b)

Skinner's Radical Behaviorism

He rejected the use of inner states such as anxiety as the explanation of our overt / observable behavior.

Example: You are not comfortable at social gatherings, you are invited to a party so you prepare yourself for the party you begin to feel nervous, tense, so you stay at home so you avoided the party because you are anxious. For Skinner such an explanation is incorrect. The behavior does not change because you feel anxious. It changes because of the aversive possibilities which generate the condition felt as anxiety which is the inner cause

Example: You rush in to a building which is on fire to save people from dying alive , it is not because you are heroic or supreme but because you have a history of exposure to reinforcements in similar situations. Behaviorism is a school of thought that focuses on the idea that all behavior is learned. Behavior is basically overt and observable.

It is an association between stimulus and response.

Stimulus and response behavior is respondent or classical conditioning.

Classical Conditioning

It is credited primarily to two early leaders in the study of behavioral modification, I. P. Pavlov and Watson.

Pavlov discovered the principle at reinforcement as it applies to classical conditioning. It can be illustrated with a famous example. Suppose that on a number of occasions a bell is sounded in the presence of a hungry dog, and suppose that on each of these occasions the sound of a bell is immediately followed by the presentation of meat to the dog.

What do we observe?

On each presentation of the bell-and-meat combination the dog salivates. But at first the dog salivates only when the meat is presented and not before. Thus the presentation of the meat is a reinforcing operation. It strengthens the likelihood that the salivary response will occur when

the bell is sounded on a later occasion. Furthermore, because its presentation increases the chances of salivation, it is classified as a positive reinforcer.

Conditioning is most effectively carried out when the reinforcement follows the conditioned stimulus, regardless of whether the response has occurred or not.

Reinforcement is reward which can be:

- 1- Material or Symbolic
- 2- Positive or Negative

Stimulus – response connection is similar to Dollard and Miller theory.

Our last personality theory was the one which focused on it as well.

See the connection between them.

Following the development of a strong conditioned response, an experimenter might wish to see what happens when the conditioned stimulus is consistently presented without its being followed by the reinforcing stimulus. In the example outlined above the bell would be sounded but no meat would follow.

Extinction is the decrease in responding that occurs when the reinforcement following the response no longer occurs.

Classical conditioning begins with S-R associations.

In his experiment Pavlov used the S-R association between food and salivation.

He presented hungry dogs with meat powder (stimulus) and they salivated (response) please note this S-R association existed without any conditioning from Pavlov

So meat powder is unconditioned stimulus (UCS) and the salivation is unconditioned response (UCR) In the second step of the experiment Pavlov paired unconditioned stimulus (UCS) say meat with conditioned (CS) bell

In the third step the UCS meat was presented with CS bell on a number of occasions –salivation took place. In the fourth step CS bell was sounded and the dog salivated so conditioning or S-R connection between bell and salivation has been established.

Once when one S-R condition or association has been established it can be used to establish another S-R association

For example with the Pavlov's bell if you pair a green light with it and present it on number of trials the dog will salivate when ever green light is presented.

This process of building one conditioned S-R association on another is called second- order- conditioning.

Example:

You see a spider (stimulus) and jump and run away (response).

You see an injured man bleeding (stimulus) and feel that you might faint (response).

Research suggests that you are not aware of the many S-R associations that influence your behavior. Your preferences for food, clothing and music, books and friends are determined by S-R associations.

Operant Conditioning

The other type of learning, which was *first systematically investigated by Thorndike, is called instrumental or operant conditioning.*

Skinner noted that there are some responses that, such as painting a picture or crossing a street. These responses seem to be spontaneous and voluntary. **Skinner's use of the term "operant."**

An operant is a response that operates on the environment and changes it. The change in the environment affects the subsequent occurrence of the response. When an operant response is conditioned, it is essential that the reinforcer be presented *after* the occurrence of the response. Only in this way does the frequency of the response increase.

Thorndike put hungry cats in puzzle boxes and to escape from the puzzle boxes thereby to receive a piece of meat or fish they had to perform a series of actions .

The cats soon learned what they had to do in order to get reward.

These findings helped Thorndike formulate his Law of Effect

- 1- That behaviors more likely to be repeated that lead to satisfying consequences-when behaviors are rewarded they are reinforced
- 2- That behaviors are less likely to be repeated if they lead to unsatisfying consequences - when behaviors are punished they are not reinforced

So rewards and punishments mold the behaviors of animals as well as humans

Teachers, judges and employers rely on connection between actions and consequences to shape behavior.

The technique of shaping or successive approximations will be discussed later in detail.

Operant conditioning is concerned with effect of certain kinds of consequences on the frequency of behavior.

A consequence that increases the frequency of a behavior is called reinforcement.

A consequence that decreases the frequency of a behavior is called punishment.

Example

You are hungry an ice-cream can be a reinforcement .

But if you have common cold or you do not like ice cream it can be punishment.

Lesson 37

SKINNER'S THEORY OF PERSONALITY

Skinner discovered two basic reinforcement strategies for increasing the frequency of behavior

- 1- Positive reinforcement the behavior increases because it is followed by reward
- 2- The frequency of a behavior can increase with the negative reinforcement or with the removal or lessening of an unpleasant stimulus.

Positive Reinforcement

A student works hard and gets an "A" on a test this behavior will increase it will be followed by working hard for all tests

The hungry rat learns to press the bar to get a food pellet and the frequency of this behavior increase with the positive reinforcement that is food pellet.

The rat that can turn off an electric shock by pulling a string will quickly learn to pull the string frequency of this behavior will increase with the lessening of an unpleasant stimulus.

People with severe headaches learn that when they take rest they are relaxed and their headaches are gone -the frequency of a behavior can increase with the lessening of an unpleasant stimulus.

Let us take a very simple example of operant conditioning. We can teach a child to ask for candy frequently by giving candy whenever it asks for candy. We positively reinforce the response of asking for candy. We can also extinguish the response of asking for candy by simply not presenting the candy when the child asks for it. We then find that the frequency of occurrence of asking for candy declines.

Skinner discovered two basic reinforcement strategies for decreasing the frequency of undesired behavior:

- 1- 1-Extinction is where we stop the reinforcement and the behavior will be extinguished.
- 2- PunishmentThe frequency of behavior is reduced when it is followed by an aversive stimulus.

Examples (Extinction)

A teacher might send the disruptive child out of the class into the hall for discipline

Example (Punishment)

The student who gets a D grade has to attend summer school and no vacations or his favorite toys are taken away.

There is another way that we can reduce the occurrence of the response. When the child asks for candy, we can punish it by slapping it.

When we perform an operation like this, of adding something to the situation that reduces the probability of responding, we have punished the response.

A *punishing stimulus* is an aversive stimulus, which, when occurring after an operant response, decreases the future likelihood of that response. **It is important to note that a punishment is not the same as a negative reinforcer.**

What is negative reinforcement?

Negative reinforcement is a method that can be used to help teach specific behaviors. With negative reinforcement, something uncomfortable or otherwise unpleasant is taken away in response to a stimulus. Over time, the target behavior should increase with the expectation that the unpleasant thing will be taken away.

Reinforcement increases the likelihood of occurrence of a behavior with which it is paired, and a punishment decreases the likelihood of a behavior.

A behavior can be reinforced by the removal of an aversive stimulus, however, in which case we refer to a negative reinforcer.

For example, a parent might reinforce a child for receiving good grades by excusing the child from doing the dishes. Similarly, a person with a phobic fear of snakes reinforces the avoidance response by turning away whenever a snake is encountered, thereby eliminating the aversive fear triggered by the snake. These are both examples of negative reinforcement.

When behavior is reinforced it may generalize to other behavior as well.

Generalization

Examples

- 1- A child is praised for performing well on a psychology test, then he may generalize this behavior to other subjects.
- 2- By learning how to deal with one angry problematic student, teacher learns how to deal with the same student in different situations and with different students with the same angry attitude.

Discrimination

It is important to discriminate among stimuli, situations, events and persons.

Example

"You look nice today."

You has said it and in what tone of voice

Is it a friend or an enemy, either with love or with sarcastic tone. schedules of reinforcement

What are schedules of reinforcement ?

Skinner demonstrated that particular patterns (schedules) of reinforcement lead to changes in both rate of responding and extinction.

- 1- If reinforcement is presented on each occasion this is referred to as a **continuous reinforcement schedule**.
- 2- Candy machines are examples of continuous reinforcement because every time we put money in (behavior), we receive candy in return (positive reinforcement).

Every time the desired response is made it is reinforced

Every time a good grade is achieved it is rewarded.

2-If the reinforcement is contingent on an interval of time, it is referred to as **interval reinforcement**;

3-if this interval is unchanging (e.g. every five or ten minutes), we have a **fixed-interval** reinforcement schedule. Instead of providing reinforcement following a constant interval of time,

4- The investigator may wish to reinforce according to an intermittent or **variable-interval** schedule. Here, although the reinforcement may be available on the average at five minute intervals, the actual interval will vary randomly around this average.

5- A **ratio reinforcement** schedule here the reinforcement is determined by the number of responses that have been emitted since the last reinforcement.

6- It is a simple only every tenth response is reinforced or every twentieth or any other number. This would be referred to as *fixed-ratio* reinforcement.

On some trials the reward might follow the second or third response while on others it would follow the seventh or eighth. This would be called a *variable ratio* schedule.

These ratio schedules are analogous to the situation of a piece worker or person working on a commission where the payoff depends only on the efficiency and effort of the worker.

A variable-ratio schedule is at the heart of all gambling systems and devices.

Methods of treatments based on Operant Conditioning

- Shaping
- Successive Approximations
- Aversive Conditioning
- Assertion Training
- Behavior Modification
- Token Economy

1- Shaping or Successive Approximations Technique

We start reinforcing a behavior that is the first toward final behavior and then gradually reinforce successively closer approximations to the final behavior.

Example

- 1- Learning to drive a car.
- 2- Teaching a retarded child how to feed himself.

This method is useful when teaching complex behaviors such as reading behavior in children. Children will enjoy reading if each step along the way is reinforced. If learning the alphabet, letter sounds and short words is difficult and unpleasant, it is unlikely that the child will move on to reading sentences and stories.

Example

You are hired to work with patients at a hospital your job is to get the reluctant psychiatric patients involved in some activities in the ward.

You start with one patient your goal is get the patient into daily art therapy sessions

Positive reinforcement is the way to do it.

Every time the patient comes near the therapy room he is praised.

When he enters the class he appreciated.

He is given small assignment and he is encouraged to do it.

Once these behaviors are established he will be reinforced only when he comes to class, takes the class and gets involved in the art therapy.

Systematic desensitization

It is a technique given by Joseph Wolpe.

It is used in treatment of phobias and anxiety; it is based on classical conditioning.

First the client is relaxed and then a hierarchy is made of the fear producing stimulus

Now pair the relaxation with the fear producing stimulus and at each step the client has to relaxed otherwise the technique does not work

Now begin from stimulus of lowest intensity ant then gradually move on

Suppose you afraid of lizards:

- Show pictures of lizards
- Show movies of lizards
- Go to person who lizards as pets
- Touch lizards with gloves
- Then without gloves

Aversive Conditioning

This technique is used with drug addicts when something is added in the drink or drug that they take which causes nausea, vomiting, sweating etc and it leads to decrease in the probability of

the response This technique is used with children when soap is rubbed on the tongue and the mouth is taped and the child is punished for using bad language.

Nail biting, or onychophagia, is one of the several bad habits that can be treated using the aversive conditioning technique of unlearning. In this case, a foul- or bitter-tasting liquid is applied to the nails of a habitual nail biter. So, every time the person takes his hand to his mouth, he tastes it. The unpleasant experience helps in reducing nail biting—the undesired behavior in this case

Assertion Training

Teaching an individual to say no in a polite manner. To unjust demands that people such as colleagues, boss or friends constantly make.

Behavior Modification

It is technique based on skinner's work where

An undesirable behavior is to be replaced by a desirable behavior by using reinforcement. Such behaviors as addictions, shy and timid behavior, autism, even schizophrenia – and works with retarded children.

Token Economy

Institutions such as mental hospitals, prisons and institutions for special children demand that when individuals behave in desirable manner such as getting up in time, taking breakfast, medicines, taking a bath, making one's bed get a reward with tokens – tickets, money, but failure to perform the desirable behavior also results in withdrawal of the tokens. The tokens can be exchanged for candy, cigarettes, games, movies, time out of the institution.

Applications

1- Skinner's ideas have been used in education through:

Programmed Learning

Teaching Machines

Schools should control behavior positively instead of negatively.

2-His ideas are being used in the modification of personal behavior.

3-The treatment and care of mentally retarded children

4-His ideas are used in prison reforms.

5-His ideas are used in helping drug addicts

Summary

1- Skinner's theory does more than explain personality; it specifies the principles by which personality can be changed.

2- Behavior is under the control of reinforcement contingencies or schedules of reinforcement so if you change these contingencies or schedules of reinforcement you change behavior.

3- Skinner focused on overt behavior and not internal mental or physiological behavior.

1- So the attention is on observable behavior of the individual and not on covert or physiological.

4- Skinner focuses on two categories of behavior:

- Classical or respondent behavior

(Main work by Pavlov, Watson)

- Instrumental or operant behavior

(Thorndike, Skinner)

5- Skinner claims happiness as a by product of operant reinforcement

The things that bring happiness are the ones that reinforce us.

Good health, true respect by all, quality work, Status, money, power; the things that reinforce happiness.

1-Classical or Respondent Conditioning

It occurs when a new stimulus is paired with an existing stimulus –response bond.

2-Instrumental or Operant Conditioning

It occurs when a behavior is followed by either a reward or punishment.
For Skinner personality develops from the organism's behavioral Interaction with the environment.

A key concept within his system is the principle of reinforcement

Skinner's theory is labeled as **operant reinforcement theory**.

Lesson 38

ALBERT ELLIS THEORY OF PERSONALITY

People have many irrational beliefs such as:

1. Black cat should not come your way
2. Number 13 is bad something horrible will happen
3. Broken mirror is a sign of bad luck

Examples

- At every cost I should win the Ladies club membership
- I must please my boss
- I am to be blamed for my failure

Albert Ellis is of the view that irrational beliefs are basis of all of our maladjustments.

These irrational beliefs are learned through socialization from Parents, teachers, peers, friends, religious, political leaders, books, films, media etc.

Ellis thinks that stressful life events referred as activating events (A), do not cause emotional disturbance or consequence or psychopathology (C) such as depression or anxiety, **instead it is the irrational beliefs (B) or unrealistic interpretations or superstitions that lead to depression or anxiety.**

Ellis says when we experience an unpleasant event or negative event we engage in a series of negative interpretations

Example

I have failed in my midterm examination

(Irrational or illogical reasoning)

I am dumb and stupid

I will never be able to pass my final term

I am not worthy of being in this university

(Rational or logical reasoning)

I was sick

I was not able to work hard

I must make sure to study hard for my final term

Biographical Sketch

He saw that his clients were never symptom free, so he developed REBT

Rational Emotive Behavior Therapy and began using it by 1950's

He invented the A-B-C model which is applied to the understanding of personality and factors that effect personality change.

According to Ellis individuals respond to an activating event A with emotional and behavioral consequences C now the C is not being caused by A but by the individual's belief system B
Ellis has written some 725 articles and 60 books.

- 1- Reason and Emotion in Psychotherapy (1962)
- 2- The Rational Emotive Approach (1973)
- 3- A New Guide Rational Living (1997)

In 1959 he founded the Rational Motive Therapy Institute as a nonprofit educational foundation to train professionals and to spread self-help applications to public.

Ellis's View of Human Nature

Humans have potential for both rationality (straight, positive thinking)

We can be happy, positive, loving, self-preserving and self-actualizing

Irrationality (crooked thinking)

We can be superstitious, intolerant, perfectionist, involved in self-blame, avoidance of self-actualization.

Ellis in 1979 listed some key assumptions about humans such as

1- People have biological and cultural tendency to think irrationally and to disturb themselves
2- Humans are unique in the way they invent their irrational beliefs and continue to be disturbed by them

3- People themselves condition themselves to be disturbed rather than the environment or external factors

4- People have the capacity and potential to change themselves by changing their cognition, emotion and behavior to remain minimum disturbed for the rest of their lives.

4- Humans through constant self-talk, self-evaluation and self-assessment develop emotional and behavioral difficulties such as need or desire for love, approval and success; this hinders the self-growth and self-actualization

It seems that Ellis is being Freudian in his approach, with emphasis on biological nature of humans but he rejects Freud's

And says that humans are not completely controlled by instincts

People are unique and they have potential to change

They have power to understand their limitations

Theory of Personality

Ellis is interested in studying the biological, social and psychological factors that make humans vulnerable to disturbances that can be cognitive, emotive and behavioral in nature.

Ellis's A-B-C theory of personality focuses on the biological and social factors that cause emotional disturbance.

Biological Factors

The individuals have innate tendencies to react to events in certain ways by blaming themselves when they do not get what they want

Example

I am a failure; I never get what I want

Now study every event of your life with this tendency

Certain severe mental disturbance can be partly inherited and have a strong biological component such as Schizophrenia that inhibits thinking logically.

Social Factors

Social factors such as interpersonal relationships in families, peer groups, schools (teachers and friends) have an impact on the expectations that individuals have of themselves and others.

When individuals are accepted by others they feel worthwhile, dependable

But when they are criticized they feel bad, worthless and negative.

A-B-C Theory of Personality

1-The Rational Emotive Behavior A-B-C Theory of Personality

- Refers to an activating event
- Refers to the belief system of the individual
- To the consequence

Now in this A-B-C model of Personality quite later Ellis's added D and the E component as well so it is A-B- C-D-E

Where D refers to Disputing or debating or challenging the irrational beliefs

E refers to the Effect or impact of the debate on minimizing irrationality in one's attitude.

Example

Ameren gets an A+ grade on her Psychology test (activating event-A)
Now this good grade will make her belief that she has ability for understanding Psychology (belief-B)
As a consequence she decides to become a Psychologist (consequence-C)

Example

4-D

Now Dispute part consists of three sections detecting, discriminating and debating

The therapist helps Reemit to detect, discriminate and debate her irrational belief.

5- E

The new effective philosophy can bring about more positive and productive behaviors where Reema is no longer depressed and do not feels worthless rather takes a new approach to work hard and take up her studies

Irrational Beliefs

Emotional Disturbance

Examples

- I have failed in my role as an employee
- I should be a good teacher like my father
- I do not like my behavior with my employees
- At every cost I should win the club membership
- I must control my anger
- I must please my boss
- I should fulfill my promise with my students
- I am to be blamed for my failure

(Many more)

See the focus on must, should, blame and failure

These sentences are framed by us we keep repeating them to our selves

We internalize them and we hang on

The result is that we develop a set of emotions which are irrational, illogical and

We develop neurosis and psychosis

Depression, loss of self-worth, hurt and hatred

Some of the main irrational ideas that lead to self-defeat and feelings of worthlessness are following:

- 1- We must have love from all people
- 2- We must be always competent, adequate and achieving
- 3- When people do not behave according to our own liking we should blame hem and see them as wicked, bad and rotten.
- 4- We should see things as catastrophic when we are treated unfairly or rejected or frustrated
- 5- Emotional misery is part of external world and we have no control over it (we can just cry over it)
- 6- Things which appear fearsome or dangerous we should perceive them as very dangerous and should be anxious about them
- 7- It is difficult to undertake responsibilities in life it is more rewarding to avoid them
- 8- Our past is important, it determines our present and it keeps determining our current behavior (you have no control on yourself)
- 9- We should find perfect solutions to our problems
- 10- We can maximize happiness by remaining inactive and enjoy life
- 11- People and things should turnout the way I want them to be otherwise it is horrible.

12- My worth and self acceptance depend on my performance and degree of approval given to me by people.

These illogical, irrational, mistaken, Dogmatic, unchallenging beliefs Pushes or emotes or acts as defeating for the person.

We must learn to stop blaming ourselves.

The imperfections that one has to accept them and come out of the trap of irrationality and self blame and self-condemnation

All these irrational views are related with:

About the self or

About others or

About the world

REBT Therapeutic Process

The Therapeutic Process:

- 1- Develop relationship with the client
- 2- Point a few irrational ideas of the client
- 3- Demonstrate to the client the illogical nature of his ideas
- 4- Challenge the client to validate his illogical ideas
- 5- Use humor to confront client's beliefs
- 6- Replace irrational ideas with rational ones
- 7- Use cognitive, emotional or behavioral techniques to help the client

Techniques of REBT

REBT is an effective therapy that focuses on changing individual's irrational and dogmatic cognitions by using technique

Which are of three types?

- Cognitive Methods
- Behavioral Methods
- Emotional Methods

Cognitive Methods

REBT says that an individual has a set of negative, irrational and disturbing set of self-statements which he has to dispute, debate, and challenge, interpret and explain.

At times the therapist even uses techniques of:

- 1- Disputing of Irrational Beliefs
- 2- Cognitive Homework
- 3- Changing One's Language (should and must)

Behavioral Methods

Behavior therapy includes techniques such as Self-Management, Systematic Desensitization, Biofeedback, Modeling, and Behavioral Homework.

Clients actually perform or act difficult things in real life so that they have insights in form of concrete actions.

Emotional Methods

Clients are not provided with sympathy nor are their long tales of woes encouraged

- 1- Rational Emotive Imagery (inappropriate feelings are changed by imagery)
- 2- Role playing (shy or fearful role)

Goals of REBT

- 1- Minimize client's self-defeating, irrational outlook and acquire realistic ideology of life
- 2- Create self-interest, social interest, self-direction, tolerance, flexibility, commitment, acceptance of uncertainty.

Applications of REBT

- 1- It can applied to treatment of anxiety, hostility, depression, marital problems, child rearing,
- 2- Self-management, social skills training

Summary

Albert Ellis is of the view that irrational beliefs are basis of all of our maladjustments.

All neurotic and psychotic disorders are the result of one's irrationality.

Once these irrational thoughts are developed an individuals repeats them again and again and lives on them.

He uses the A-B-C -D-E model to study and modify irrational beliefs of an individual.

Evaluation

A theory which is scientifically attacks the irrational or superstitious behavior of an individual

Considers that innately we are rational it is socialization that makes us irrational

Lesson 39

THE GRAND PERFECT THEORY OF PERSONALITY

- 1- Is there a perfect theory of personality?
- 2- Can a single theory answer all the relevant questions related to personality domain?
- 3- All the theories that we have studied which one is the best?
- 4- Which theory can we trust the most as a student of personality psychology?

We began by defining personality psychology, discussed personality measurement, then briefly we talked about the approaches or perspectives in personality psychology and we discussed the major theories of personality related to each and every area or domain or perspective.

After studying some of the most important Personality theories beginning from Freud, Jung, Adler, Karen , Horney, Eric Erikson, Sullivan, Sheldon, All port, Murray, Maslow, Rogers, Dollard and Miller, Albert Ellis, Bandura and Skinner.

My students ask the following questions.

- 1- Is there a perfect theory of personality?

No there is no perfect theory of personality.

- 2- Can a single theory answer all the relevant questions related to personality domain?

No single theory can fully answer all the relevant questions related to personality domain or human nature.

- 3- All the theories that we have studied which one is the best?

All the theories that we have studied

We cannot label one as the best and the others as bad or incomplete. Each theory has emphasis on one or another important thing related to human nature.

- 4- Which theory can we trust as the most representative of human nature?

One cannot blindly trust a single theory of personality to be representative of human behavior.

Is there a grand ultimate or a true theory of personality?

NO

Dear students a good theory of personality is one that fulfills three purposes in science

- 1- Provides a guideline to researchers
- 2- Organizes the known available findings
- 3- Makes predictions

1- Provide a Guideline to Researchers

Now as far as the first one is concerned theories serve as guideline or a map for researchers in directing them to important questions in the area of personality psychology.

2- Organizes the Known Findings

A useful function of a theory is to organize known findings.

In physics the theory of Gravity accounts for the facts such as why objects fall down on the earth and not remain suspended in the air or when we walk we press the ground and the force of the earth pushes us forward and in Biology the theory of evolution is the one that accounts for organizing the known facts, but in Personality we lack a theory which can account for the most of known facts of human nature.

May be Freud's theory or Maslow's theory or Allport's theory
Actually these theories point to different domains or perspectives or schools of psychology.
All the theories of personality are quite different, or that they belong to a different perspective but they try to answer questions related to the following areas

- Genes
- Stages of Development
- Motivation
- Learning
- Perception
- Traits
- Emotions
- Temperament and Body Types
- Neurosis
- Disorders and Therapies
- Conscious and Unconscious
- Therapy
- Defense Mechanisms

1- Genes and Biology

All theories of personality endorse the important role of genes and heredity in personality development. In the past there was an emphasis on whether its genes which are important or is it environment which is important the nature –nurture controversy is now over today we know that both (genes and environment) contribute equally in personality development.

2-Stages of Development

Stages of development, as given in the theories of Freud, Jung and Erikson

3-Motivation

Motivation is central to most theories of personality.

First the biological motives need for air, water, food, pain and heat/ cold avoidance.

Second there are the social motives which develop on the biological motives, especially self-esteem that is based on such approval and self actualization.

4-Learning

Dollard and Miller's Stimulus Response learning theories as well as Skinner, Thorndike, Pavlov's and

Watson who say that individual learns from his environment.

Social learning includes imitation and modeling. This kind of learning is probably significant and vital for the development of personality as advocated by Bandura.

5- Perception

Kelly, Rogers and Maslow emphasize on the fact that the way an individual perceives reality is the basis of individual differences or uniqueness of people.

6- Traits

• Allport (Cardinal Traits, Central Traits) and Cattell (Unique, Common, Surface, Source traits) focus on the traits that an individual possesses

• A trait is a predisposition or way to respond in a manner to various kinds of stimuli.

• or Mental Structure.

7- Emotions

Emotions or feelings of anxiety, fear, guilt, shame, grief, depression, anger, sadness, aggression, and hostility are some of the key emotional states that the personality psychologists are concerned with and they work on these emotions.

Freud was interested in anxiety, hostility, and aggression whereas the humanistic are concerned with anger and hostility management.
The behaviorists focus on learning of faulty and negative emotions and their modification.

8- Temperament and Body Types

(William Sheldon)

Sheldon correlated specific body type with a specific temperament

- i. Ectomorphs: Slender, lean and tall with a mean, miserly temperament
- ii. Mesomorphs: Muscular well build with an adventurous temperament.
- iii. Endomorphs: Fat and plumb people who are happy go lucky type temperament.

9- Neurosis

According to **Karen Horney** a child with loving parents, peers, and teachers may help the child to overcome abuse, neglect, sickness, parent's death, divorce or to cope with insecurity and basic anxiety.

Adler and Rogers considers unconditional positive regard, need for positive regard, love, approval, respect, attention essential for healthy growth and development otherwise it leaves the child with low self-esteem.

10- Consciousness and the Unconscious

Freud's

He talked about:

- 1- Conscious
- 2- Preconscious or Subconscious
- 3- Unconscious

Jung's

- 1- Personal Unconscious
- 2- Collective Unconscious

Archetypes

11- Therapy

It is somewhat surprising that, for all the variation in theories, there is considerable agreement regarding the concept of psychotherapy

12- Defense Mechanism

According to Anna Freud all

- (1) They operate on an unconscious level and are therefore self-deceptive
- (2) They distort one's perception of reality, so as to make anxiety less threatening to the individual
- (3) They protect the ego

We can list a large number of defense mechanisms, as given by Freud or Karen Horney to defend the ego such as projection, displacement, rationalization, regression, blind spots, and cynicism.

An ultimate theory of personality is not possible in personality psychology which is still a developing science and it is not as scientific as biology, physics or chemistry.